Appendix. Ethnographic Sources

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Contents

1 Africa

1.1 Central Africa

1.1.1 Barundi

Meyer, H., & Handzik, H. (1916). The Barundi: an ethnological study of German East Africa. Ott Spamer. p139. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fo58-001

"**The eldest son also inherits** the religious and professional attributes and **skills of his father**. If the father was a priest (kiranga), sorcerer, medicine man (umufumu), or **blacksmith** (umususi), etc., the eldest son becomes — or remains — in the same position or profession by inheriting from his father the insignia and tools, **in addition to the expert training**. Thus, certain professions remain the prerogative of certain families. If the mother is an expert of some sort, she will pass on her skills to her eldest daughter."

1.1.2 Mongo

Hulstaert, G. E., & Vizedom, M. B. (1938). Marriage among the Nkundu. In MéIn-8 (Vol. 8, pp. iv, 520). Librairie Falk fils, Georges Van Campenhout, Successeur. p.475-476. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fo32-002

"**Parents teach their children the trades that they themselves know: forging, wood sculpture, the weaving of mats and baskets, pottery making, etc.**"

p476(contextual information) "In general one has the impression that the girls are far more active than the boys. But I think that this difference is due to the fact that **the boys are almost always in the forest, while the girls remain in the village and are therefore noticed more**. As a matter of fact in our missions it cannot be said that the boys work less well than the girls, quite the contrary."

1.2 Eastern Africa

1.2.1 Chagga

Dundas Sir, C. (1924). Kilimanjaro and its people: a history of the Wachagga, their laws, customs and legends, together with some account of the highest mountain in Africa. H. F. & G. Witherby. p.273-274. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fn04-004

"**It seems to be the common rule with all smiths that apprentices are taught first to make knives, then sickles, next slashers, after that hoes, and finally arms. An apprentice who does not belong to the clan of his instructor must enter into blood brotherhood with him, and remains for all his life in the relation of a son to his master; nor may he in turn teach anyone the art without his master's consent. The course of instruction is said to last two to three years**, and having qualified, the pupil pays the fee mentioned before and receives in return a hammer, tongs and an anvil, for which a hard stone from the river bed is used. When insert_drive_file274 when a new forge is made, sacrifice is offered to the ancestors of the smith's clan."

p.272 (contextual information)

"In general, the smiths believe that the spirits of their ancestors would be offended if one of their clan did not practise, or at least was not taught, the smiths' craft; among the Wako Makundi Tomono, when a male chil dis born the father gives it a hammer to lick, saying: "With this hammer you shall acquire blessing all your days." **In the Malisa clan, however, the rule is that the eldest son becomes a smith, the next son a charcoal burner, the third again a smith, and so on. Now if the second son has sons, the eldest must become a smith again, but must pay a fee of a heifer and a goat, as is paid by all persons who wish to become smiths and who are not of the smith clans.** In Uru lives a clan Buka, a branch of Malisa, and its members are charcoal burners, having never paid the insert_drive_file273 fee for instruction in the smiths' art. There are a few such charcoal burners' clans, but mostly the fuel is made by any person who wishes to have something forged, and who supplies it to the smith. Likewise the metal must be supplied by the customer, the rule being that he must supply enough to make two of each article he requires, the second being for the smith himself, or if sufficient metal is not supplied, the second article must be redeemed by payment of one goat; but for the forging of arms, sufficient metal is given to furnish material for three of every one weapon ordered."

Raum, O. F. (1940). Chaga childhood: a description of indigenous education in an East African tribe. Oxford University Press for the International Institute of African Languages and Cultures. p.373. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fn04-002

p.373 (contextual information)

"In summing up this survey of professional training, three types can be distinguished. The practice of magic is transmitted when the elders feel they are approaching death. **The simpler vocations, such as bee-keeping and forging, admit the successor at the time of initiation and marriage**, because these occupations form the means of subsistence of the poorer families. The rites accompanying the training and the admission of youths to the professions are analogous to the agricultural education of the farmer's son, whose hoe and axe are blessed too. The heir to the realm receives a schooling, which, though adapted to his superior position, resembles that of his subjects. **Theoretical teaching, magical initiation, and social approval are in all walks of life necessary to admit the novice to his vocation.**"

1.2.2 Nuba

Nadel, S. F. (Siegfried F. (1947). The Nuba: an anthropological study of the hill tribes in Kordofan. Oxford University Press. p.71-72. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fj21-001

"**Rather, craftsmanship appears irregularly, as a result of the inclinations and the cleverness of certain individuals which, once they become known, are utilized by others who are not so 'clever with their fingers'. Everybody can, in theory, make baskets or beer-strainers; but in most groups we find 'experts' to whom people would go for these things in preference to making them (much less satisfactorily) themselves. The same is true of the manufacture of native stools, angrebs, and certain musical instruments like the Nuba lyre or wooden drums (the skin is fixed by the owner himself). The list of self-produced goods, on the other hand, comprises the old (wooden) farming tools and spears, shields, sticks, the handles of hoes and axes, the old-type plank-bed, simpler musical instruments like flutes, animal horns, or gourd trumpets, and, finally, the native house, complete with roof and granaries.** But again we must emphasize the fluid nature of this distinction. It is characteristic, for example, that in the tribes which possess a rather elaborate type of house—Korongo and Mesakin—'experts' may also be employed in house-building, the experts being men who are known to be good builders —better builders than the prospective owners of the house. The Mesakin house, incidentally, boasts a certain elaborate gadget which comes to some extent into this discussion. It represents a primitive system of 'runninginsert_drive_file72 water', which consists of a gourd bowl filled with water and perforated a little below the rim, resting on two antelope horns which are fixed high up on the wall of the hut; you hold your hands under the bowl, pull a string which is tied to the rim of the gourd, thus tipping it over, and a stream of water spouts through the hole on to your hands. Now, the antelope horns which enable the gourd to slide easily up and down, and which thus form an essential part of this outfit, were formerly 'self-produced', i.e. easily obtainable on an occasional hunt. Scarcity of game has altered this, and to-day owners of new houses have to buy the horns from outside (from the Dinka).

The only craft practised on a larger scale and implying to some extent the conception of a

group profession is a woman's craft—pottery. In every tribe we find large numbers of women potters. The technique varies but slightly in different hills. The wet white clay is beaten and shaped in shallow moulds of hardened clay sunk in the ground. Powdered leaves are placed into the mould first to prevent the wet clay from sticking to it. The finished pot is dried, scraped with a stone and burned in the ashes of cow dung and grass. Some women paint their pots with red clay. Different tribes or even different hill communities of the same tribe often specialize in different kinds of pots. In Otoro, for example, the women of the hill communities Kodi and Urila manufacture large, flat, dish-shaped pots, the women of Chungur specialize in round, spherical pots, and the women of Kujur in tall, wide-mouthed urns. Simple grass huts and palm-leaf shelters serve as workshops. **In Tira I found a large 'factory', numbering about fifty moulds of all shapes and sizes, laid out on a rocky ledge some distance from the homesteads, close to the place where the women obtain the red clay for painting. The site was shared by six women each of whom had her own eight to ten moulds. The factory occasionally turns into a school for potters. For (grown-up) women can come and watch the experts at work; they can help with the simpler tasks and will be instructed—free of charge—in the more difficult ones, till they have thoroughly mastered the technique and are ready to open a workshop of their own. Otherwise the craft is handed on from mother to daughter.**"

1.3 Northern Africa

1.3.1 Berbers of Morocco

Coon, C. S. (Carleton S. (1931). Tribes of the Rif. In Harvard African studies: Vol. v. 9 (pp. xviii, 417 , 67 plates). Peabody Museum of Harvard University. p.77. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=mx03-001

"Weaving, the final process of textile manufacture, is done on two entirely different kinds of loom under different circumstances. The more primitive is the azta, an upright two-bar loom with a stick heddle and a wooden comb for battening the warp. The operation of the azta is entirely in the hands of women. **A girl who does not know how to weave on the azta has a poor chance of marriage, and consequently girls learn this art at an early age. Parties are held for the teaching of it; a girl who is not expert invites a number of skilled weavers, who go to her house, eat, and instruct her.** The cloth produced by the azta is called tadsha and is used for women's clothes, men's sleeveless shirts worn in winter, and blankets. It is generally white, sometimes with red horizontal bands or stripes. The azta is employed throughout the region under consideration, except in the tribes of Beni Bu Yahyi and Metalsa."

1.3.2 Nubians

Kennedy, J. G., & Fahim, H. M. (1977). Struggle for change in a Nubian community: an individual in society and history. In Explorations in world ethnology (pp. x, 194). Mayfield Pub. Co. p.25. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=mr08-003

"**Nubian building techniques were passed down through families from generation to generation, but a few men were regarded as specialists. Some of these were responsible for local carpentry needs—for sakkia repair, the manufacture of beds, wooden chairs, donkey saddles, and the like; some were masons;** and, in the Kenuz area especially, there were men who possessed the traditional skills for building the barrel-vaulted domes typical of the houses in this northernmost part of Nubia. House building was traditionally an activity of the extended family with all relatives taking part in the festive occasion, in exchange for only food and drink, under the direction of the owner and a master builder."

1.4 Southern Africa

1.4.1 Ovambo

Hiltunen, M. (1993). Good magic in Ovambo. In Transactions of the Finnish Anthropological Society; Suomen Antropologisen Seuran toimituksia (Issue No. 33, p. 234). Suomen Antropologinen Seura. p.70-71. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fx08-014

"There are no special blacksmith families, but **usually the occupation is hereditary, and a boy will be trained by his mother's or father's brother**. When it is time for the youth to become an independent smith, he may learn the necessary magic in two alternative ways. Either he cuts a wound in the back of his right wrist and mixes his blood with the blood of his instructor, who has cut a similar wound in his wrist. Or he drinks "boiling water" to get the strength he will need in his occupation. The instructor gives him water in which a red-hot iron has been immersed. While the water is still bubbling, the youth drinks it. The water is called strengthening water (omeva gekoleko). The trainee must also learn the blacksmith's techniques and many magic insert_drive_file71 songs. He must learn how to easily bear iron loads, how to melt iron ore and cast iron in a mould. Finally, the wood spirits will welcome him when he stays among them (Loeb, AS Vol. 7, 1948).

Mateus Shikeva has also told about the initiation of a son of a leader of oshimanya. The olusa will be imported to the son, i.e. he will be turned into a diviner of metal. The leader cuts his own wrist and the son's wrist with a razor and mixes their blood. The new diviner will serve the leader. If he can forge, he will forge many hoes for the leader. If he cannot forge, he will reward the leader with an ox and make porridge and meal drink. The metal of the leader's wives and children will be treated with magic. (MS, ELC 1932, 1601)

In Uukwambi, smiths were not very highly appreciated. The reason was their low origin. They were mainly the servants and slaves of the Bushmen (aakwangala). They were apparently the same Berg-Damara who, in the Otavi region, had been servants of the Heikom Bushmen. The only smiths in Uukwambi belonged to these aakwanga, who spoke the Bushman language (the Nama dialect). As the aakwanga were considered members of the lower class, so were the smiths. (KKC, Notebook II; Koivu 1925, 154–155)."

1.4.2 San

Silberbauer, G. B. (1965). Report to the Government of Bechuanaland on the Bushman Survey. Bechuanaland Government. p.80-81. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fx10-036

"From her fifth or sixth years, a girl goes out with her mother and helps her forage for food plants. This is a period of intensive learning, for not only has she to do what amounts to a woman's work in gathering food, but she is exposed to the conversation of the adult women which,insert_drive_file81 when they are away from the men, is far from inhibited. The women do their food gathering as one group, partly for protection and, of more importance, for the pleasure of company and conversation, so the young girl has ample opportunity to hear of all that goes on in everybody's life. and is free to ask what questions she will. After a year or so of this, by the time she is seven or eight years old, she is considered to be ready for marriage. Her mother keeps an eye on her all the time and has a very clear idea of whether her daughter is yet able to fend for herself and her capability as a housekeeper. During this time the girl is virtually an apprentice housewife under the strict eye of her mother who, because her daughter is her assistant in gathering and preparing food and doing all the other household tasks, makes sure that she pulls her weight.

The boys are under less pressure and still spend a lot of their time playing. **The imitatory games of the small children are abandoned for pastimes** which are more of the nature of sports, e.g. stick-bowling and shuttle-cock. Their archery is no longer a series of imaginary encounters with game and dangerous animals, but a conscious effort to acquire marksmanship by practice with bigger (but not yet full-sized) bows and barbless arrows on birds and, later, small buck. They make snares and trap rodents and other small mammals, which they eat. At the same time **they devote more time to helping their fathers and elder brothers with skin-working, cutting up animals which have been hunted and the manufacture of weapons and implements.**"

1.4.3 Shona

Aschwanden, H., & Cooper, U. (1982). Symbols of life: an analysis of the consciousness of the Karanga. In Shona heritage series (Issue No. 3, pp. xviii, 332 , plates). Mambo Press. p.75-76. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fs05-020

"When a youth enters the age of puberty he may sit where the men sit, even if at first only to listen. Also, the freedom of his boyhood days is gradually reduced, he may no longer roam about as he likes but must start insert_drive_file76 working in earnest. He is also instructed as to his duties within the tribe and, especially, his behaviour towards elders and ancestral spirits. He learns the rules of hospitality and how to behave towards strangers. This also includes, for instance, lessons about his relations with future parents-in-law.

The youth is given practical instructions in hunting, dancing, the manufacture of weapons and implements and house-building. He is trained for fighting, and sometimes the symbolic objects used provoke passionate efforts of defence. For instance, the elder brother takes some soil and shapes two small mounds, then he challenges the younger one: "These are your mother's breasts, defend them!" Someone else then tries to destroy the two "breasts", but the defender would rather be killed than give a stranger the chance to call him a coward. To harden the boy further, he is sent into the bush without anything to help him live there. He must then show that he can, all alone, survive for seven days.

The Karanga sees in the boy's age of puberty chiefly a time for education and preparation. Rituals do not play an important role. During the girl's adolescence, on the other hand, they are of great significance."

1.4.4 Tanala

Linton, R. (1933). The Tanala, a hill tribe of Madagascar. In Publication 317. Anthropological series (Vol. xxii, p. 334). [s.n.]. p256-258. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fy08-001

"While I was in Ambohimanga the boys frequently brought me small models of traps which they had made. These were offered for sale and I doubt whether such models were used in their own play. **They begin to make real traps for small birds and mammals at a very early age**. Tanala toys seem to be characterized by an almost complete absence of replicas of things used by adults. I never saw any small figures of cattle or chickens, although such playthings are very common among the plateau tribes, or any miniature tools or utensils. The girls did not even have dolls."

1.4.5 Tonga

Colson, E., & for Social Research, U. of Zambia. I. (1958). Marriage & the family among Plateau Tonga of Northern Rhodesia. Manchester University Press. p262-263. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fq12-015

"Today with the scarcity of game throughout most of the area, few receive training in hunting or fishing. **Other learning**, such as skill in constructing dwellings and granaries and in **making various tools or utensils, is fitted into the daily round and extends throughout childhood**, since it does not clash with herding duties as does field work."

1.4.6 Ovimbundu

Hambly, W. D. (1934). Occupational ritual, belief, and custom among the Ovimbundu. American Anthropologist, Vol. 35, 157–167. p.167 https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fp13-005

"**At an early age children specialize in their play which has a bearing on the business of life. Boys make wooden-tipped arrows**, play at hunting, and shoot at tubers which are rolled along the ground. **Girls take clay from the potters to fabricate their own small cooking pots, and young girls attempt the coiling of basketry**."

1.5 Western Africa

1.5.1 Akan

Rattray, R. S. (Robert Sutherland). 1927. “Religion and Art in Ashanti.” In . Oxford, England: Clarendon Press. p271-272. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fe12-002.

“In Ashanti, a generation or so ago, every stool in use had its own particular significance and its own special name which denoted the sex, or social status, or clan of the owner. The village of Afwia, a few miles from Coomassie, was the centre, in olden days, of the stool-carving industry. **Sons and sisters’ sons were equally allowed to learn the art of carving, from father or uncle respectively**. Many of the stools shown here were the ‘copyright’ of the Ashanti king, and might not, on any account, be sold in the open market; 2 they were first given to the king, who would then present them to chiefs whom he wished to honour. **A woman might not carve a stool—because of the ban against menstruation**. A woman in this state was formerly not even allowed to approach wood-carvers while at work, on pain of death or of a heavy fine. This fine was to pay for sacrifices to be made upon the ancestral stools of the dead kings, and also upon the wood-carver’s tools. If any wood-carver’s wife was unfaithful to her husband, and the latter, being unaware of this, went to work, then ‘his tools would cut him severely’. A wood-carver might not go to work leaving unsettled any quarrel or grievance with his parents.”

p.301-302

“It would hardly be correct to state that pottery-making in Ashanti is entirely in the hands of women. **While it is true that they everywhere appear to be the makers of pots, there is not any unwritten law or taboo to prevent a male from practising this trade. As a matter of fact, men do not fashion pots or pipes unless they represent anthropomorphic or zoomorphic forms, for women are forbidden to make these.** The reason given me for this was that the making of these requires greater skill. Another reason often forthcoming why women are the chief makers of pots also appears to be plausible. It is stated that in ancient times pots were invariably bartered in exchange for food, and that they were never sold for gold dust or whatever was the currency of the time. This caused their manufacture to lie in the hands of the women-folk—with the exception noted—‘as it was not worth the while of the men to make them.’

There is a tradition that the first woman potter, at the village of Taffo, an important centre of this industry, was a woman called Osra Abogyo. 'She learnt the art from Odomankoma, the Creator'; songs are still sung in her honour.

Pot-making is a hereditary craft, which is handed down from mother to daughter; whole families of girls are 'potteresses', having learnt the art from the time that they are quite small children. Fig. 230 shows the old Queen Mother of Taffo and her family, all of whom are 'potteresses'. I lived for some time at Taffo, making a study of the craft; many of the photographs shown here were taken on that occasion. The village of Taffo is famous for its pots; it was formerly one of a number of villages, Pankrono, Obuokurum, Sisirease, and Ekwea, which, under the insert_drive_file302 facing old Ashanti régime, were wholly engaged in fashioning earthen-ware vessels. Taffo pots are still exported to places as distant as Seccondee and Accra"

1.5.2 Dogon

Paulme, D., & Schütze, F. (1940). Social organization of the Dogon (French Sudan). éditions Domat-Montchrestien, F. Loviton et Cie. p.447. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fa16-002

"**The work side by side allows the children to observe the movements of their elders, movements which they will then strive to reproduce; thus the transmission of technical knowledge is assured**. A boy sees his father cut wood, handle the hoe to clear a field; he helps him to prepare the mud which will strengthen a wall, unwind the cotton to weave it, etc. ... **In the same way, the daughter of the potter prepares the clay that her mother is going to model and watches the firing of the pots; later, she herself will be a potter**. The apprenticeship takes on an even more familial aspect among the people of caste, blacksmiths and shoemakers: the son of a blacksmith will learn even as a child to handle the bellows of the forge, then the anvil and the hammer; the daughter of the shoemaker, from the age of five or six, will help her mother, the dyer, to prepare the vat of indigo into which one dips the strips of cotton that all the inhabitants of the village bring there.

To teach the children how to clear a field or the method of plaiting a basket does not, in general, present great difficulties. It is much more ticklish to inculcate in these same children the rules of politeness and good breeding. Dogon parents demand of their sons and 474 their daughters absolute obedience — in theory. In fact, the relations that parents maintain with their children present an aspect just as variable as the one that may be observed in our families. Certain parents, known to be very strict, are feared by their children, who avoid them. In the neighboring house boys and girls show a very lively affection and complete confidence toward their father; they climbed on his knees when they were small; even now they run to meet him every evening. Children show a very unequal degree of respect and submission; one sometimes hears them protest against an order that is given them, and they may carry out only with considerable delay an errand with which their mother charged them. An ideal of obedience is nonetheless held up before their eyes."

1.5.3 Fon

Herskovits, M. J. (Melville J. (1967). Dahomey, an ancient West African kingdom: volume 1. Northwestern University Press. p.273-274. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fa18-001

"A child is taught to walk when it is about a year old. A young relative is the teacher, and holds the baby by its hand and encourages its first steps. When the child learns to take a few short steps, four small bells strung on a cord are placed about each foot, so that the child, hearing the tinkling sound made at every step is encouraged to continue its efforts. These bells, called yoyui, are made in one special quarter of Abomey by a group of the metal-working guild who produce no other wares. The delighted shrieks of a small child taking its first steps, to the accompaniment of the jingle of bells, testify to the efficacy of this device. When the child has learned to walk well, if it belongs to one of the special twin categories, it is taken by its mother for a ritual visit to the market, described in the preceding pages. If a child does not belong to one of these categories, however, then his learning to walk satisfactorily is marked by no departure from the routine of daily life. A part of this routine consists in the beginning of his training in the occupations of his elders. For example, in the family that inhabited the courtyard of a house in Abomey where observations were made was a child of two years and some months. At that age, he had begun to carry a stool to the market some several hundred yards distant for his mother, and could be seen from time to time carrying an empty calabash or a dish on his head. Again, during a visit to the quarter of the iron-workers on a day when work at the forge was forbidden because it was sacred to the god of iron, some of the children could be seen playing at the trade of their fathers.insert_drive_file274 **The bellows of one forge had been brought out, and two boys, who were judged to be eight or nine years old, were handling the red-hot iron with the tongs then**

elders used, and hammering this metal into shape on the anvil. The usual task of such a boy is to work the bellows for his father or uncle or older brother; in this case, the bellows were being operated by a still younger boy, who could not have been more than three or four years old. Thus the pattern was reproduced; the point here, however, is to indicate at what an early age a child begins to participate in Dahomean life.

A little girl, when she is but five years old, accompanies her mother to the market, does small tasks about the house, or pulls up weeds in the field, so that by the time she is ten or eleven years old, she is able to cook all of the staple foods used in a household, to wash the cloths used by the women, and to do all the minor tasks of her sex. The same thing is true of boys, who watch their elders at work and play at their fathers' occupations, thus absorbing techniques, or help the older men in the fields. Both boys and girls of nine or ten years of age or younger have been seen helping with the planting; indeed, by the time a boy has attained the age of eleven or twelve he is supposed to know the essentials of agriculture."

1.5.4 Igbo

Ottenberg, S. (1975). Masked rituals of Afikpo, the context of an African art. In Index of art in the Pacific Northwest (Issue 9, pp. 229, [8] leaves of plates). Published for the Henry Art Gallery by the University of Washington Press. p69. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=ff26-030

"**Sometime after he was initiated, he started carving secret society masks**. His father had been a carver but had died long before Chukwu was old enough to learn from him. All of his father's masks had been destroyed in the fire during the British invasion of Afikpo in 1902. **Chukwu, then, combined his past experience at carving as an enna with what he learned from his older brother, who helped teach him**. **In fact, he had learned many of the primary techniques of mask carving (but not in wood or calabash) and of coloring when he was an enna.** Many boys at that time try their hand at the work. During that period he was unaware that his older brother, Oko, who was already initiated, was carving secret society masks, because members of the secret society do not reveal this fact to nonmembers, even in their own family. Similarly, his eldest brother did not know that Chukwu was making enna masks, for members of these enna groups are also secretive to outsiders about their activities. For the noninitiate, then, the stimulus to carve comes not from older persons—elders or professional carvers—but largely from the criticisms and rewards of age-mates. Chukwu's carving skills were basically learned when he was a child. When away from home in the Enugu area and at Makurdi, he apparently did no carving, but acquired considerable skill in the use of Western-type carpenter's tools, which undoubtedly contributed to his later success as a carver."

1.5.5 Kpelle

Lancy, D. F. (1984). Work, play and learning in a Kpelle town. Xerox University Microfilms. p.141, 157-158. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fd06-009

p141

"Some tasks are done within the family, but only by the male or female members. Each wife will have her own vegetable and cassava gardens which she tends with the aid of her daughters. Men plant and harvest tree crops with their sons. Net-waving and net-fishing are done in mother and daughter teams, (see Plate XX) as trapping is a father and son operation. **While the girl attempts to learn how to weave nets from her mother, her brother may be tramping through the jungle setting and inspecting traps with his father. At first, the boy merely tags along learning to attend to the salient stimuli of game and jungle. Later, ho will help his father gather materials to make the trap, then he assists in making and setting them. He will try to make his own, getting advice from his father on proper construction. At seven years (Cross-Reference: (Table 13))A a boy may be able to construct a simple trap for catching small birds (Faang).** Each year, thereafter, he will probably learn one or two new traps until he has mastered the whole arsenal. At fourteen ha may join Geleng-Gbe the boys' hunting society and learn secret medicines to use in his traps. At age sixteen he traps by himself and contributes part of his catch to the family larder."

p157-158

"**Certain tasks are quite complex and require training which could be called an apprenticeship**. These tasks include medicine making (Zo), leather-working, pottery, **blacksmithing**, and cloth weaving. Blacksmithing, at least, is learned during an apprenticeship. **Jawo-Gbala was apprenticed to his mother's brother. At first he only helped out on occasion by bringing wood for the forge and by operating the bellows. But even before this Jawo remembers sitting on a log at one end of the "shop" and watching his uncle work. At fourteen he began a formal apprenticeship which lasted three years.** His father"gave" him to his uncle, then, at the end of the apprenticeship, he “gave” him back to his parents. Jawo-Gbala first learned to make a knife blade, then a machete, later still ho learned to carve wooden handles and to forge the hoe and the adze. These latter two require bending the hot iron which must be done with care to avoid breaking it. His uncle made few comments while Jawo-Gbala was working, only when he had finished a tool would he give a critique. He wasn’t allowed to keep a piece until it was perfect, nor could he make a machete until he’d mastered the knife, a hoe until he’d mastered the machete and so on. When he did make a mistake, or did sloppy work, his teacher would beat and berate him and order him to destroy what he’d made. During the apprenticeship, he paid his uncle through his work. He would make tools for people who would, in turn, agree to work on Kuu on his uncle’s farm. The apprenticeship terminated when Jawo-Gbala had mastered all the tools including these needed in the actual blacksmithing and he set up his own forge.”

p159

“Yeleke has been crippled since he was very young, probably from polio. **As a child he had enjoyed watching his father’s brother doing leather-work, but his uncle died before passing on his skill**. Yeleke realized that he would not be able to support a family through rice-farming and he did not want to be dependent on hand outs so he begged his father to find someone who would teach him leather working. **His father traveled to Guinea where the skill is more common and brought back a teacher who lived in the family for three years. Yeleke was then in his mid-teens and he had to struggle to learn his trade.** For one thing his fingers are also partially paralyzed and his general lack of mobility slowed down and hampered his work. Leather-working breaks down into many subtasks and some of these, such as sewing and tooling the leather require strength and finesse. Yeleke learned the easier and more basic tasks first, such as working the leather by hand to soften it, scraping it clean, shaping and cutting it, etc. Today ho makes a wide variety of items including several things such as fur hats that he invented on his own. (see Plate XII)”

p228

“Other instruments are learned without the aid of a teacher, but nevertheless require a lengthy period of self-guided training. Young boys will shape two or three flat pieces of wood of different thickness and lay these across their spread legs as they sit on the ground. With a stick they beat out rhythms on the “bars,” continually adjusting them as they slide around. They will progress from two to four bars, then they will make a full-scale Gbai-ngweni (xylophone) to play. **Boys make Maning (horns) by the age of ten and begin learning to blow them. Their horns**

differ significantly from those used by adults. The adult horns,insert_drive_file229 made from hardwood are carved inside and out in a megaphone shape. Boys use a short (1 = 8”) section of log from a pithy wood and they scoop out the insides leaving one end plugged up. They cut a square opening near one end and blow into this opening. On the adult Maning this opening is actually raised from the surface of the horn about two inches. **Boys of nine make and play smaller versions of the adult Baming instrument.** They also play one-stringed guitars made out of a tin-can) a bent sapling and a piece of wire. Cross-Reference: (Table 15) presents the percentages of children at different ages who said they could play certain musical instruments.”

p177-178 (contextual information)

“**If one had a lot of time (say two years) to spend observing young children at Neé-pele, one would, I believe, record instances of all the important adult activities of the society**. Some other examples of Neé-pele that I did observe:

Children on the farm make their own Kuu. Boys sing and swing their sticks (= machetes) at the weeds. Girls cook dirt (= rice) in snail shells (= pots) over sticks the boys have fetched for the “fire.”

A girl makes thread from pissava palm fibers (actually strips the fiber into threads rather than twisting it) which she winds onto a “bobbin.” This she gives to a boy who has made a “loom” from bamboo sticks. He lays two sticks on the ground, parallel to each other to represent heddles, and moves his feet up and down as if to raise and lower them. Leaves or paper represent the woven cloth and this is divided up among the “children” for their “clothes.”

Boys play at blacksmith. Sticks represent the tools, the anvil is a rock and the tongs are a piece of bamboo that has been partially split along its length. Different types and sizes of sticks represent different hammers. The finished machete (a flat piece of wood) is given to its “owner” who goes off to cut brush with it.

Many men from Gbarngasuakwelle have, at one time or another, gone down to the coast to work for a few months, for wages, in the Firestone rubber plantation. I observed insert_drive_file178 a seven year old boy with his younger brothers and sisters reenacting the homecoming scene of a worker returned from Firestone. He had made a carrier basket of palm thatch and proceeded to distribute to his “wife and children”: dirt (= salt), leaves (= clothes), sticks (= shoes), rope (= belt), gourds (= pots) and cowrie shells (= money).

Several boys aged eight to ten practice palm-tree climbing, to “cut palm nuts.” They play on a coconut tree which has a convenient curve in it not found in the oil-palm tree making it easier to climb the first few feet. Their Baling is a strip of bamboo which they loop around the trunk and hold at their sides."

Lancy, D. F. (1996). Playing on the mother-ground: cultural routines for children's development. In Culture and human development (pp. xii, 240). Guilford press. p89-90 https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fd06-031

p89-90

"**Make-believe play** can provide opportunities for children to acquire adult work habits and to rehearse social scenes. In many cases the transition from play work to real work is nearly seamless. However, some adult roles are just too complex to be acquired solely in the course of Neé-pele—blacksmithing, for example.

Let us compare, briefly, the blacksmith at work in his forge with children doing a make-believe recreation of blacksmithing. In the realm of social relations, the blacksmith enters into a number of reciprocal relationships: between himself and a helper, who may also be an apprentice; between himself and a client, for whom he makes a tool and from whom he exacts an obligation to work on his farm; and and between his wife or wives who take care of many of his needs in return for his protection and maintenance. In the make-believe play we see these social relationships duplicated. **A boy of 8 or so is the blacksmith; two other boys of roughly the same age act as clients. A younger boy serves as helper, holding a "tool" for the "blacksmith" to "hammer" and fetching woodchips for the "fire." Finally, two girls, younger than 10, prepare and bring "food" for the smith to eat. The anvil is a rock and the tongs are a piece of bamboo that has been partially split along its length. Different types and sizes of sticks represent different hammers. The finished machete (a flat piece of wood) is given to its "owner," who goes off to cut brush with it.**

The "blacksmith" and his co-actors use the appropriate language in carrying out their make-believe. The older boy is addressed as "smith" or "old man," the helper as "boy" or "son." The girls as "wife." The specialized blacksmith's tools and paraphernalia are also referred to by their proper names.

The blacksmith possesses complex technical skills, the most important insert_drive_file90 of which is a basic understanding of metals and their reaction to various temperatures and stresses.

Clearly, these technical skills are not acquired to any appreciable degree during make-believe play. The blacksmith is also an important ritual figure and will be called on to assist in administering oaths. I found no evidence to indicate that children were learning the ideological aspects of being a blacksmith through their play."

p61 (contextual information)

"**The blacksmith is the only skilled worker with a permanent workshop**. This is an open-walled building with a sharply pitched thatched roof. Inside, is a forge that consists of two earthen mounds separated by a narrow trough in which a fire of woodchips is laid. An assistant works two leather bags which force air through bamboo tubes down and out a small opening at the base of the fire. A large and smaller rock serve as anvils and the blacksmith uses a variety of hammers, punches, and tongs in his work. A customer brings both the iron and the wood to be made into the requested tool—a blacksmith does only bespoke work. **Formerly, iron, which is plentiful in the region, was smelted in local furnaces (Thomasson, 1987), but this practice has died out. Scrap iron is presently used**. Only old men knew the secrets of iron smelting and one had to be initiated into these secrets, as in the Poro."

p168 (contextual information)

"As illustrated in an earlier analysis (Lancy, 1980a), becoming a Kpelle blacksmith involves mastery of three distinct spheres. **First, one needs to learn how to turn iron and wood into useful products. Second, because of his very public persona, his "extra" income, and the heavily symbolic nature of his craft, the blacksmith will inevitably assume the trappings of a "big man."** The blacksmith's forge is one of the most popular male gathering points in town and the blacskmith is privy to a great deal of gossip and often consulted on legal, government, and social affairs. This is an awesome and dangerous responsibility, akin to that assumed by the town chief. **Third, the blacksmith must also master the intricacies of the magicoreligious role of Zò**, as he is often called on to conduct purifying rituals. The apprenticeship, per se, is straightforward, as we shall see. It is the other two spheres that involve many other cultural routines—including make-believe play—(Lancy, 1980a)."

p154-155

"**Akewoli-la was 16 when he learned to weave a hammock**; now he makes about 10 a year which he gives to friends. When he was 16 he saw a friend making a hammock. The friend asked

Akewoli-la to help him, but Akewoli-la protested that he did not know how. **The friend offered to teach him, at no charge. In a week, Akewoli-la went off to make his own**. It was very good and when he showed it to his teacher, the man jokingly accused him of knowing how to do it all along. **Now Akewoli-la is teaching his son Tondolo (age 21) how to make a hammock. He teaches by demonstration, showing his son where to place and how to tie the knots.**

Tondolo was anxious to make his own and did successfully with only a few minor corrections by his father. He is now working on his second. **Every evening he spends about 2 hours twisting the fibers into twine and nearly has enough, after 2 weeks, to make the hammock**. Other hammock makers reported that they first made miniature hammocks before making a full size one. **Apparently these individuals began learning it at an early age, say, 12.** I surmise that they did not have the patience to prepare enough twine for a full-size one and were anxious to get into the actual hammock construction.

Lave and Wenger (1991) identified a cultural routine that fits the above cases very well—and also extends to apprenticeship (Chapter 9). They call this legitimate peripheral participation. Essentially, they have broadened the earlier conceptualization of Vygotskian theory. For example, the claim that all learning is social was taken to mean that learners would always be assisted by those who are more skilled—a claim the Kpelle material fails to substantiate. But there need not be an expert present to see the influence exerted by society on the learner. **In each of the previous cases, we see individuals acquiring weaving skills to enhance their own social participation.** As Sua indicates, if a girl wants to "look nice," to match the appearance of women, she must learn the skills to dress and decorate herself. In attempting to do so, she will be accorded the status of a "legitimate peripheral participant." She may be supplied with materials insert_drive_file155 and someone competent may agree to model the skill and also to critique the fledgling product. Miniature tools may be supplied. Overall, the society will treat these initial forays with respect—at worst, mild teasing is employed.

Westerman, D. H., & Schütze, F. (1921). The Kpelle: a negro tribe in Liberia. Vandenhoeck & Ruprecht; J. C. Hinrichs'sche Buchhandlung. p. 292B. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fd06-007

"**The technical teaching covers all skills: plaiting mats, weaving, basketry; making sieves, traps, fish nets, weirs; roofing, blacksmithing, hunting; carving dugouts, mortars and drums; making game boards**. Other requirements are: proficiency in games, in drumming and dancing, learning songs and folktales. Certain equipment, such as blacksmith tools and game boards, is made only in the bush and may therefore not be sold. A large part of the training period is taken up with sex education:"to handle women, to find the secret parts of women" [cited in English]; how to make women well disposed toward one, how to force them to obey, how to get behind their wiles and dodges and keep oneself unscathed. The pupils of the chieftain class are initiated into tribal life, its structure, the regulations about inheritance and the election of a new chief, the ceremonial at the king's court, the tribal traditions, relationships with neighboring tribes, warfare. The pupils in the class of religion are taught chiefly about medicine, magic and counter-magic, offerings, ordeals, sand-beating and other fortune-telling, about spirits, water-people and hill-people, forest devils, totem animals and plants and their treatment, about God. Naturally, everything worth knowing about the Poro Society itself and other secret societies is taught, especially the duties toward members and strangers. The pupils learn the secret characteristics and signs by which initiates recognize each other and can communicate unobtrusively, "and all kinds of tricks and rascality" [cited in English]. Instruction about sex is postponed until the later years when the boys reach maturity."

p288 (contextual information)

"**Entrance to the Poro school takes place between the ages of seven and fifteen, rarely later. The complete course lasts four years.** During this time the pupils can learn everything that is taught in the Poro and reach the upper grades. Many, however, enter during the course and remain two or three years, one year, or even only a few months. Well-to-do people can shorten the training period of their children at will by means of gifts to the ˙namũ. Private lessons with a zō can also replace part of the stay in the bush, if one can prove, according to certain criteria, that one is an accepted member. It may even happen that a young man takes part only in the entrance ceremonies and is thus regarded as a member. This happens, for example, if a man, for some reason, has not attended the Poro, perhaps because he was away from home, but then wishes to get married and for this purpose must become a member.

A new Poro-bush is opened up at the beginning of the dry season, that is, from November on, when the field work of the year is completed. Entrance in the school and thus in the Society is nominally voluntary, but actually reluctant candidates are forced. Parents, with happy anticipation, wait for the time when their son can become a member of the Poro, and they gladly bear the trouble and costs involved, the long separation that is also painful for Negro mothers, and the dangers threatening their children in the bush. They will describe to their children, in harsh colors, the experiences awaiting them in the **bush**, the demands that will be made on them, and their privations, and will prepare them for dreadful things. At this time the ˙namũ with his retinue scours the villages and roads and where he finds an uninitiated one at the proper age he will take him along without further ado. His parents will later on find out only that the ˙namũ devoured him. If the ˙namũ happens to know that the women are absent, he will himself enter a hut and drag out potential shirkers. Often, the father, after arranging with the grand master, will send his boy on an errand and will let the unsuspecting one be caught along the way."

p37 (contextual information)

"In southern Kpelleland, instead of earthen bowls and plates, wooden ones are used of various shapes and sizes. Imported brass bowls and iron pots are also used everywhere; vessels bartered in the North are also common. Other kitchenware to be mentioned are wooden spoons, most of them very artistically carved; gourd shells used for eating and drinking, for storing flour, rice, pepper; the long-stemmed ones are also used as spoons and as enema syringes. Likewise carved of wood are combs, sandals with leather straps, trumpets in the shape of elephant tusks, sword sheaths covered with leather, large mortars for rice and tubers, small ones for snuff, drums, game boards, masks, and dugouts. **It is difficult to find out exactly how these objects are made because they are produced in the schools of the secret societies,34 or at any rate the art is taught there and must therefore be kept secret.**"

Erchak, G. M. (1977). Full respect: Kpelle children in adaptation. In HRAFlex books, ethnography series (pp. 9, 225 l.). Human Relations Area Files, Inc. p.149. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fd06-014

p.149 (contextual information)

"Many basic skills are acquired through direct investigation, observation, and trial-and-error experimentation. A young boy will watch carefully while an older boy assembles a toy wagon from odds and ends. Scenes of the following sort insert_drive_file150 were observed throughout the year: Three boys were seen carefully and deliberately unweaving the rattan of an old chairseat. While unweaving, the oldest boy continually commented on how the chair was put together. The two younger boys watched carefully."

1.5.6 Mende

Leach, M. (1994). Rainforest relations: gender and resource use among the Mende of Gola, Sierra Leone. In International African library (pp. xix, 272). Edinburgh University Press for the International African Institute, London. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fc07-009

"In contrast with women's predominance in collecting and using food products, most of the tree and plant materials which Gola forest villagers use to construct and repair buildings, **furniture and items of household and agricultural equipment are collected and processed by men. The knowledge and skills involved in the manufacture of many equipment items are learned as part of Poro initiation**, and women usually avoid the activities for fear of transgressing forbidden men's society boundaries."

1.5.7 Tallensi

Fortes, M. (1938). Social and psychological aspects of education in Taleland. In *Memorandum* (pp. 64, 4 plates). Oxford University Press for the International Institute of African Languages and Cultures. p. 60-61. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fe11-005

"Children's arts and crafts have a play value in that they are practised purely for pleasure and have a seasonal incidence. But they demand considerable skill of eye and hand, and individual differences in ability are noticeable. Towards the end of the rainy season a strong and supple reed springs up in profusion along the watercourses. Young people and children pluck these reeds to plait bangles, necklets, small panels to hang over the chest as decorations, and waistbands. These things are worn by young and old at the festival dances. **But whereas the young men and women plait sporadically a few things for themselves, their sweetheart, or a child, children do so continuously and absorbedly. From July to September one sees them sitting about or strolling about in small groups, plaiting reed decorations.** The boys have a game played by tossing or bowling the reed bangles and waistbands at a mark. A group plays, and the winner collects all. Girls of all ages love decking themselves from head to foot in this reedware. **The technique of plaiting these articles, which is the same as that employed in the manufacture of a number of utilitarian objects, is fairly elaborate. It is gradually learnt between the ages of about 8 and 11.**"

p.61 “Boys, too, between the ages of 12 or 13 and 16 to 18 are at the stage of transition from childhood to young manhood. The imaginative play still prominent at the beginning of this period is given up by degrees and usually altogether abandoned when puberty is established. Like the adolescent girl, the boy of 16 or so finds his principal recreation in the dance at certain seasons. He, too, begins to frequent markets when time permits, for he is greatly preoccupied with the opposite sex, with courtship and flirtations and even transient love affairs, and there is no place like the market for pretty girls. An adolescent youth is already applying the deftness and skill acquired in juvenile play or in the arts and crafts of his boyhood to practical ends. **A 16-year-old takes an active part in building and thatching and in the manufacture of bow and arrows, or in the practice of crafts like leatherwork or the forging of tools and implements**.”

1.5.8 Yoruba

Lloyd, P. C. (1953). Craft organization on Yoruba towns. *Africa, Vol. 23*, 30–44. p. 33. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=ff62-009

“The training of a young craftsman differs little in principle from that of the farmer’s son. **A son is trained by his own father or, in the absence of his father, by his father’s brother or his own elder brother. It is not uncommon for a boy to go to his mother’s brother to learn the craft of his mother’s patri-lineage**, for it is felt that the boy will have some craft blood in his veins. In the old days it was unlikely that a craftsman would adopt and train a boy unrelated to him. **Today, however, some blacksmiths do take boys who are strangers to the lineage, and pay apprenticeship fees to the master**. No man would ask a fee for training his sister’s son. In most crafts there is work for a small boy—**he runs errands, pumps the smith’s bellows, washes calabashes, sweeps the floor, winds cotton on to the reels**. **By watching his father he learns and by the time he reaches the age of sixteen he will have enough knowledge to perform most tasks and needs only a little practice**. By Yoruba law a father is expected to set up his sons in life—he must provide land, tools, and the first wife. The farmer gives his son a small plot of land on which the boy may work in the evening for his own gain (the work being known as ???); the father retains his right to the boy’s labour during the earlier part of the day. Similarly the craftsman still expects his son to work for him; he will give him set tasks each day and only when these are completed may the boy work for his own gain. The father must provide bride-wealth for his son but the boy should earn pocket-money to pay the contributions to his social club (???), for presents for his girl friends and for his own luxuries. Whereas a farmer retains the labour of a son until marriage, the young craftsman tends to leave his father at an earlier age. There is no ceremony to mark the freedom of the boy although his tools would probably be ritually consecrated. After his freedom the boy will, of course, continue to live in his father's corner of the huge rectangular compound and he will probably eat with his parents until his marriage. His freedom gives him little enhanced status in the lineage where age, marriage, and the birth of children are the important criteria."

2 Asia

2.1 East Asia

2.1.1 Okayama

Cornell, J. B. (1956). Matsunagi: the life and social organization of a Japanese mountain community. In Two Japanese villages: Matsunagi, a Japanese mountain community [by] John B. Cornell; Kurusu, a Japanese agricultural community [by] Robert J. Smith (pp. i–viii, xvii–xxiv, 113–232). University of Michigan Press. p.143-146. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=ab43-007

"Only two of the craft trades common throughout the nation (exclusive of the distinctively "mountain" skills called kobiki) are represented among occupations in Matsunagi: insert_drive_file144 carpentry and cooperage. **Carpentry involves more skill and knowledge than any other craft trade and commands most respect in the buraku**. While the carpenters of Matsunagi operate independently, they can easily join forces because they share a highly stereotyped body of skills. The carpenter, like other craftsmen, prefers to work close to home, in his own buraku, if possible. Like the sawyer, he uses a number of tools peculiar to his special handicraft. Among the most useful of these are saws, which are cruder and lighter than ours; he lays more emphasis on planes and adzes rather than on hammers and screw devices. Though rude by the standards of American building, the carpenter's craft produces a carefully mortised structure having great durability. Carpentry is also an informal confraternity sharing work ritual as well as common skills.

As the most prominent of the local trades, carpentry is outstanding among the forms of apprenticeship in the buraku. **A single master, if he is exceptionally skilled and experienced, may have as many as seven apprentices at once. But most masters have no more than two**, the eldest in point of service being called "older brother apprentice" and the others "younger brother apprentice." Between these grows a bond of friendship like that between classmates or even between siblings, so that in later years they are inclined to turn to each other first for assistance in their trade. A carpenter wishing to apprentice his son is likely to ask his former "older brother apprentice" to take the youth. The apprentice spends much of his time with his master, even living as a member of the household during the seasons of greatest activity.

If the master lives at some distance from the apprentice's home, the latter will probably see his own household mates only at festivals and during the height of the harvest seasons. The apprentice pays for his keep by helping with domestic chores, though it is improbable that he will help in the master's fields. A beginner may receive 10 percent of the master's daily wage, which is increased as the student learns until it probably reaches 50 or 60 percent. There are various arrangements, some of which are so ungenerous that the apprentice receives nothing but his keep while working on the master's jobs. A popular master with many apprentices can afford to be less open-handed. At the end of each year of apprenticeship, that is lunar new year, the apprentice may give his master a money gratuity or a bottle of sake, if relations between the two are amicable. At the end of the term, a similar sort of gift is in order, and the master may respond by presenting his student with a set of tools. Usually, though, the apprentice has to buy his own equipment piece by piece during his training period.

Other common handicrafts, the sawyer's craft, stonecutting, plastering, cooperage, follow the same apprenticeship pattern with only slight modifications. The sawyer, too, needs a period of training, but it is generally much shorter than the carpenter's; indeed, nowadays this skill has so declined that there are almost no apprentices in training. The cooper makes most of the wooden tubs and buckets used in the buraku. He, too, is self-employed and, like other craftsmen, is called to each new job by word of mouth. At work, a cooper spreads straw matting on the ground of the houseyard and, seated, shapes wood and bamboo into his product. Even more than in carpentry, the tools of cooperage are made to shape pieces to fit together exactly, for nail and screw fasteners are seldom used. Nevertheless, this craft is not as exacting as the carpenter's, nor does it involve work ritual. A subsidiary form of cooperage is bamboo-working, making such things as water pipes and flooring.

The stonemason, roof-thatcher, and plasterer are craft workers who are auxiliary to the carpenter. Like a carpenter's, their labor is better paid than unskilled forestry work, the day wage of a plasterer being high—above five hundred yen. The mason cuts and fits together the rough stones of a building foundation. He usually works alone, quarrying and shaping local rock to suit his needs. The roof-thatcher usually builds and repairs the elaborate straw roofs of larger farm buildings. Two or three journeyman specialists work insert_drive_file145 insert_drive_file146 together, being assisted in the preparation of thatching materials by the people of the household and their neighbors. A craftsman assembles prepared bundles of grasses to form the roof and then trims the edges with a sickle, his most important tool. If a new roof is to be built, he also constructs the lattice frame on which it rests. The roof-thatcher is sometimes required to perform ritual in connection with his work, but this is so simple that no more than a layman's knowledge is needed."

2.2 North Asia

2.2.1 Yukaghir

Jochelson, W. (1975). The Yukaghir and the Yukaghirized Tungus. In American Museum of Natural History, New York. Memoirs; The Jesup North Pacific Expedition. Publications: Vol. v. 13 (pp. xvi, 469 , [15] leaves of plates). AMS Press. p425. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=rv03-001

"**The Yukaghir blacksmith, Shalugin**, who lived on the Yassachnaya River, was looked upon by his tribesmen with great respect, and his art was regarded as a divine gift. Not everyone is fitted to learn** the blacksmith's trade. Among the Yukaghir, Yakut, Tungus and other Siberian natives, the status of the blacksmith is on a level with that of the shaman. **Shalugin was always worried because his elder son seemed unable to learn his father's vocation. "My people will be lost," he once said, to me, "if my younger son should not be clever enough to become a smith.** Who will forge knives, axes and other tools for them, and who will repair their guns and lances?" Shalugin worked for the welfare of his clan, remuneration played quite a secondary role. He was satisfied with any reward and was not disturbed when a customer gave nothing. On the other hand, when he had to buy iron or steel blocks from traders or the government store he was assisted by his people. No one would withhold from him a fox or some squirrel skins to be used in exchange."

2.3 South Asia

2.3.1 Bengali

Klass, M. (1978). From field to factory: community structure and industrialization in West Bengal. Institute for the Study of Human Issues. p209-210. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=aw69-007

"And yet, having said all this, some Carpenter men go on to express a measure of sadness. Work in the factory is certainly well-paying, they note, but it is also dull and unsatisfying. An operator insert_drive_file210 performs a series of rote movements in any factory task—the same ones over and over, days without end. Whether one stamps out the bits of chain link, or assembles them, or assembles the fork in the frame, there is really very little satisfaction to be obtained after the first few days. It cannot compare with the pleasure of repairing a broken cart, or the deep satisfaction a man could feel when building a new one, working in the cool morning hours in the yard in front of his house with the children watching and neighbors walking by, joking and gossiping. **There was true pleasure, a Carpenter will say, in working with the tools he inherited from his father and in teaching his sons the ancient trade. Now the boys are not interested in learning to become carpenters, for they—like their fathers—hope they will go to work in the factory. And, after a hard day's work, who has time to teach the boys?** In many Carpenter homes, the tools are rusty and neglected. And yet, say the men who have made all the foregoing remarks, it cannot be denied that the factory wages are excellent, and no one in his right mind would choose the chancy and inadequate income of a village carpenter over the factory wages. . . ."

2.4 Southeast Asia

2.4.1 Eastern Toraja

Adriani, N., & Kruijt, A. C. (1951). The Bare'e-speaking Toradja of central Celebes (the East Toradja): second volume. In Verhandelingen (p. HRAF MS: ix, 810 [original: viii, 557]). Noord-Hollandsche Uitgevers Maatschappij. p.624. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=og11-003

"It is clear from one sign or another that something that does not please the child or something that does not immediately produce results at the first attempt is not further practiced by it; this is why some can plait baskets and mats, carve handles, decorate articles of clothing, forge iron, etc., while others cannot. For example, **a father who can forge iron does not teach this skill to his son of 12, 14 years of age. The boy often goes with his father to the smithy to work the bellows, to fetch cold water, etc., but if he does not find any pleasure in this work by nature, nothing will persuade him to pick up a hammer. Only if the boy tries to imitate his father's work on his own accord will the father now and then give him brief instructions.**"

2.4.2 Ifugao

Lambrecht, F. (1958). Ifugaw weaving. Folklore Studies, Vol. 17, 1-53 , plates. p1. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=oa19-023

"**Weaving, from cotton to cloth, is the exclusive task of women**. They weave for themselves and the members of their family, but only occasionally for selling purposes. **Girls learn how to weave by helping their mother or elder sister, for example in putting up the warp (see infra), and by actual practice under the latters' supervision: most of them become quite skilled within a short period of time.** The weaving tools, i.e., the loom sticks, the spindle, the apparatus for fluffing, skeining and winding, are, of course, made by the men."

2.4.3 Sama-Bajau

Nimmo, H. (2000). Magosaha: an ethnology of the Tawi-Tawi Sama Dilaut. Ateneo de Manila University Press. p.53. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=oa08-003

"**All boatbuilders I interviewed said they learned their craft by working with others, usually their fathers, when young. And expectedly, many of these men were assisted by their sons who would become boatbuilders themselves. Thus, it is very much a family skill passed through the generations.** Men tend to specialize in one type of houseboat (always the one used by their kin group), but are usually able to construct several types of fishing boats. Among the Sama Dilaut men recognized as master boatbuilders in Tawi-Tawi during the 1960s were Hadjulani, Maisahani, Kaiyani, Suarani, Saraban, Amileludden, Lajahulan, and Salbaiyani. All had sons of varying ages who assisted them. During my stay, two of the sons made their first small dugouts and burst with pride as they paddled them through the moorage for the first time."

p.28 (contextual information)

“**Boat-building is normally an individual project, but occasionally a man needs assistance to help him over a difficult stage of construction or to provide skills, such as carving, which he does not have. At such times, he calls upon members of the family-alliance unit to form a work team**; unless their assistance is needed for a long time, these members expect no payment for their services beyond reciprocal favors. A man with little talent for boat-building, or a young, inexperienced man, sometimes must depend upon members of his alliance unit to construct his entire boat. In this case, the owner provides all materials for the boat and does whatever work he can under the direction of the master boat-builder; in addition, he may be expected to provide sustenance for some of the workers during this period. All depends upon the closeness of the relationship between the men. Most men closely related to the boat-owner would demand no payment, but would certainly feel no qualms about seeking reciprocity from him in a time of their own need. He would, of course, be obligated to give such assistance. On rare occasions, two or three men of an alliance unit may form a work team to construct a boat to sell, in which case profits are equally divided.”

Jumala, F. C. (2011). From moorage to village: a glimpse of the changing lives of the Sama Dilaut. Philippine Quarterly of Culture and Society, Vol. 39(2), 87–131. p.107. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=oa08-014

“As a Sama Dilaut is an expert navigator, he is also a highly skilled boat builder. Hadjulani boasts that in his younger years he used to build both houseboat and fishing boat. **He claims that every Sama Dilaut knows how to build one, since in the past, the boats formed part of the ungsod or bride price.** Building a boat is a necessity in life and a requirement in married life. It is preposterous for a Sama Dilaut to borrow a houseboat, Hadjulani stresses. A Sama Dilaut is expected to build his own houseboat as well as his fishing boat if he wants to raise a family. Hadjulani claims that boat building is tedious yet a fulfilling endeavor. Accordingly, boat building is done with an all-around tool called the patuk. A patuk is a primary tool of metal which can be used as an ax (kapa) and as a chisel (sangkap) by manipulating the handle. The secondary tool used in boatbuilding is the bolo. These two-bladed tools shape the boats as well as their paddles (Nimmo 1972). Paddles used for building both the houseboat and fishing boat are of two kinds: the single-bladed paddle (busai) and the double-bladed (kileh). The busai is used more often, but if speed and mobility are desired, then the kileh is utilized. The kileh is more favored when the fishing boat has outriggers.”

2.4.4 Semai

Dentan, R. K. (1978). Notes on childhood in nonviolent context: the Semai case. In learning non-aggression (pp. 94–143). Oxford University Press. p.126. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=an06-016

"Acquiring skills. Besides being coercion that might make the child sick, **training is unnecessary because "our children learn by themselves" (see "Enculturation" above). Children tag along after adults, especially parents or grandparents, imitating their activities in ways that shade imperceptibly into helping out. Seeing the child's interest or in response to its initiative, the adult may show insert_drive_file127 it how to do something better or may make a small version of the appropriate tool. When no adults are around, children often play at adult activities by themselves.**"

2.4.5 Vietnamese

Hickey, G. C. (1964). Village in Vietnam. Yale University Press. P165-166. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=am11-173

"**The usual pattern is for carpenters and implement makers to pass on to their sons the skills of the trade** as well as the tools—saws of various sizes, chisels, planes, bow-powered drills, hatchets, squares, metal rulers, plumb lines, pliers, and hammers. **One exception was a carpenter in Ap Dinh-B who, because his son lacked propensity for the trade, took one of his brother's insert_drive_file166 sons as an apprentice, later accepting him as a full partner. Some young men complained that there is a tendency to accept only kin as apprentices**, and they cited the example of a young laborer who was unable to become an apprentice in the village, so he learned carpentry working in a Tan An lumberyard."

Malarney, S. K. (1998). State stigma, family prestige, and the development of commerce in the Red River Delta of Vietnam. In market cultures: society and morality in the new asian capitalisms (pp. 268–289). Westview Press. p.273-274. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=am11-185

"Handicraft production exhibited a similar concern with secrecy and competition. Gourou spoke of the "spirit of monopoly" associated with handicraft production at the village level (Gourou 1936:528). Across the Red River Delta, different villages were centers for the production of different trade items. Well known among such villages were Bát Tràng in Bac Ninh Province for pottery production (see Luong 1992), Giap Nhi in Ha Dong Province for paper votive items for the dead (hang ma), and Dong Ho in Bac Ninh Province for traditional ink-block prints. Again, so as to maintain their competitive advantage, these centers discouraged the dissemination of knowledge to outsiders through such practices as confining the transmission of handicraft knowledge to males, prohibiting local women from marrying out of the village, or allowing out-marrying women familiar with manufacturing techniques to engage in production only in their natal villages (Gourou 1936:528). Local families employed similar strategies. **Among the producers of votive objects in Giap Nhi and traditional prints in Dong Ho, technical knowledge for production was transmitted almost exclusively through men in the patriline. The most important component for ink-block production was the knowledge of the proper raw materials and the proportions needed to mix the colors. This was taught exclusively to senior men. The intricate procedures required to assemble complex votive items such as horses or household items were also taught only to sons, sons-in-law, and patrilineal descendants.** Innovations were well-guarded secrets within the family. One exasperated French official who attempted to organize the cooperative production of handicrafts in Ha Dong Province in the 1930s concluded that perhaps the greatest obstacle facing any reform agenda was "as they say (i.e., the artisans), their atavistic mistrust which all too frequently prevents them from submitting to a common will as they dread seeing their neighbor gain a superior advantage" (quoted in Malarney 1993:171). Communist officials echoed this sentiment in The Peasant Question (1937–1938): "Peasants also have the mentality of private ownership. They are accustomed to living and working separately. They are suspicious of talk of collective insert_drive_file274 work. Most of them do not like contributing money for common goals. . . . We have yet to see peasants spontaneously organize societies that have a common usefulness" (quoted in Truong Chinh and Vo Nguyen Giap 1974:21; emphasis in original)."

3 Europe

3.1 Scandinavia

3.1.1 Saami

Pelto, J., Pertti. (1962). Individualism in Skolt Lapp society. In Kansatieteellinen Arkisto (p. 261). Suomen Muinaismuistoyhdistys (Finnish Antiquities Society). p.112. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=ep04-020

“In all the learning of adult male skills among the Skolts it appears that the main principles of training include the idea enunciated by Jaakko Sverloff, » Work it is that teaches, my father told me » . Reindeer tethering and care, driving with reindeer, hauling wood and freight, fishing, **construction of cabins, boats, sleds, reindeer collars, harness, and numerous other items are all tasks which the growing Skolt boy has an opportunity to watch as his father includes him in work parties. His father generally exposes him to the work, sometimes tells him some principles that should be followed, but does not push him to learn faster than he himself wishes to perform.** The father very seldom commands him directly to do anything, and as we noted in connection with spanking and other disciplining, fathers do not usually make use of punishments in the training of their children. Skills are allowed to develop at their own pace, without any serious achievement orientation or other pressures that may create fears of failure. The training of the young that progresses through adolescence to adulthood continues to emphasize a permissive type of training that results in adults who are self-reliant and independent in their actions.

Girls, too, are generally treated permissively in their training, but in their early teens they find that they have not the excitements and climaxes of enjoyment in store that the boys have. Theirs is a duller, more monotonous routine, which includes work that sometimes tends toward servility. For example, when the men, (including brothers) come in from the woods they frequently kick off their leggings and furshoes in the middle of the floor, scattering shoehay around the house. It is for the women to clean up this equipment and debris as the men bring it in, and again when the men are leaving on a trip the women pack the equipment and food for them.”

4 Middle America and the Caribbean

4.1 Central America

4.1.1 Garifuna

González, N. L. S. (1969). Black Carib household structure: a study of migration and modernization. In Monograph (pp. 24, 163). University of Washington Press. p.48 https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=sa12-002

"It is difficult to determine just how much the father assisted in the care of the children in the early days, but according to the tales told by some informants **he played an important part in educating his male children after the age of about ten**. From this point on he took the boy fishing with him, teaching him how to manage a canoe, how to cast a net, where the fish were apt to be found, and so forth. **He was also responsible for teaching the boys how to manufacture those items ordinarily made by men.**"

4.2 Central Mexico

4.2.1 Nahua

Lewis, O. (1951). Life in a Mexican village: Tepoztlán restudied. University of Illinois Press. p.98. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nu46-002

"The division of labor according to sexes is clearly delineated. Men are expected to support their families by doing all the work in the fields; by caring for the cattle, horses, oxen, and mules; by making charcoal and cutting wood; and by carrying on all the large transactions in buying and selling. In addition, **most of the specialized occupations, such as carpentry, masonry, and shoemaking, are done by men. An important function of the father of the family is to train his sons in the work of men**. When a Tepoztecan man is at home, his activities consist of providing the household with wood and water, making or repairing furniture or work tools, making repairs on the house, and picking fruit. Men also shell corn when shelling has to be done on a large scale. Politics and local government, as well as the organization and management of religious and secular fiestas, are also in the hands of the men."

4.2.2 Zapotec

Cook, S. (1979). Teitipac and its metateros: and economic anthropological study of production and exchange in a peasant artisan community in the valley of Oaxaca, Mexico. University Microfilms. p.183-191. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nu44-028

p189-191

"c. Enculturation. The task of the present section is to ascertain the function of kinship in the process of metatero enculturation in the Teitipac villages. **In San Sebastian the finishing tasks in metate and mano production are taught in the residence lot; all preliminary and intermediate production tasks are taught and learned on location in the quarries.** In San Juan, on the other hand, where the quarries are close to the village and more accessible than those in San Sebastian, metate size blocks of stone (trozos) are often carted from the quarry to the metatero's residence lot in the village. Thus, the residence lot is, in many instances, the San Juan metatero's workshop.

The apprentice in both villages is taught by instruction from more skilled metateros — the instruction assuming the form of tips and pointers volunteered periodically rather than systematically programmed training. Much of what any apprentice learns is on his own initiative through trial and error or imitation. The San Juaneros, unlike the San Sebastianos, often congregate on street corners in groups of five or six to 'finish' (Iabrar) their metate products. In this informal street corner setting a spirit of friendly insert_drive_file190 competition prevails which is conducive to the development or perfection of production techniques. As one San Juanero describes this situation:

And after I was able to make metates, we would meet on the corner to finish them. Well, there they taught me how to do a better job of finishing them — Guillermo Cruz, who's now dead, was my maestro. There we competed with each other — with our other companions — to see who could finish the best product. Well, of course, with patience we turned out well made products.

Only one of 24 metatero informants in San Sebastian claims to have had no teacher; eleven state that their father was the chief agent in their occupational enculturation; three learned from affines and one from an elder brother. The remainder were taught by non-relatives, two maestros being responsible for training four of them. Of 15 San Juan informants, 7 were taught by their fathers, two by mother's brothers, one by his elder brothers, and another by his

Fa-SisHu. Four of these informants were taught by non-relatives as apprentices in quarries owned by their maestro-patrones. In sum, then, kinship ties between teacher and apprentice are basic to the process of metatero enculturation.

What are the principal aspects of this process? **During his period of apprenticeship the apprentice is economically dependent on his maestro-patrón; he helps the latter in those quarry tasks which require a minimum of skill but much effort (e.g., carrying waste stone out of the quarry) and is rewarded by an occasional piece of stone, access to his maestro's tools, and with advice or informal instruction.** The insert_drive_file191 only source of remuneration for the apprentice is the revenue from the sale of his output — which is usually small in quantity and poor in quality. Inevitably, then, for a period of several weeks or months the pecuniary reward for the apprentice's efforts is minimal and he must rely on patience and perseverance (and deferral of gratification) to get him through his apprenticeship."

p183-184 (contextual information)

"The informal organizational structure of the Teitipac metateros consists of three functionally differentiated and ranked sets of status whose internal relationships are schematized in Figure 13. The maestros (masters or teachers) or dirigentes (directors) are capable of organizing and directing quarry operations, of instructing, and are the most skilled insert_drive_file184 quarrymen and metate makers. The mozos metateros are those members of the occupation who lack the knowledge and experience to organize and direct quarry operations but are competent makers of metates and manos. **Apprentices, who are mostly boys and young men under the age of 25, can neither organize and direct quarry operations nor make metates. They are teaching themselves by trial and error and by imitation, or are being taught by more skilled workmen, to make metate products.**

Since it is very difficult for a neophyte to learn to make metates on his own, he must undergo a period of 'on the job' training. Consequently, the informal status hierarchy represented in Figure 13, looked at diachronically, indicates developmental stages in the metatero's career. This is not to imply that all apprentices become full-fledged metateros nor that all metateros become maestros but, rather, that those who do attain higher ranks passed through the lower ones."

p185-188 (contextual information)

"As the highest status in metatero organization, that of maestro merits further discussion. Table 8 contains a tabulation of the traits most emphasized in 15 metatero definitions of maestro. Below is a sampling of some of these definitions:

1. He's a maestro because he knows how to do it. He knows how to make metates and manos. Also he can make 'carved design' (calado y dibujado) metates. He knows the work from the beginning — the cutting of stone in the quarry. Not everyone does that well. That's a maestro.

2. The maestro has the quality of saying how one is going to blast and cut stone in the quarry. He can even say — as if he were divining the stone — how many metates a block of stone will yield. That's a maestro; he is a director. The worker who doesn't know how to cut stone asks advice from the maestro in his quarry. The maestro tells him: 'That stone should be cut like this'.

3. The one who turns out the best work is a maestro. In every sense he knows stone. He can appraise stone in the quarry. Just by looking at stone in the quarry he can estimate how many metates will come out of it.

It is clear from these statements and from the table that there is a broad consensus among the metateros as to what constitutes a maestro — the 3 salient traits being skill in appraising and cutting stone, skill in the manufacture of metates, and ability to organize and direct quarry operations. The term maestro, then, connotes 'master' — a status whose artisan occupant excels in his understanding and application of the strategy and tactics of his craft.

b. Recruitment. **The typical metatero career is initiated between the ages of 10 and 20 years, with the mean starting age of a sample of 35 informants being 17 1/2 years.** Recruitment into the occupation tends to be through ascription. Of 30 active metateros censused only four reported having no consanguineal relatives in ascending generations who were metateros. Of the remaining 26, 16 reported a three-generational patrilineal continuity in the occupation (i.e., from FaFa or FaFaBr to Fa or FaBr to EGO). Direct three-generational patrilineal succession (FaFa to Fa to EGO) occurred in 14 of these cases, with direct two-generational patrilineal succession (Fa to So) occurring in the other two. A total of 13 of these informants have metateros in both their matri- and parti-lines in at least one ascending generation; however, occupational succession has a definite patrilineal bias.

Only four of these 30 informants do not have consanguineal relatives of the first or second degree who are active metateros. All of the others have either first or second degree consanguines (in most cases both) who are active members of the occupation. Moreover, all of the informants have affines who are practicing metateros. Some idea of the complexity of the consanguineal and affinal networks among the metateros can be provided by tracing these relationships for one metatero as is done in Table 9.

Certain families in the Teitipac villages are known as metatero families. For example, it is often said of such families: "Son del oficio desde sus abuelos y bisabuelos" (They have been in the occupation since their grandfathers and great-grandfathers). Such reputations are, indeed, supported by the genealogical facts. For example, the Cruz family in San Sebastian is known as a metatero family. The genealogy of the direct male descendants of Jose Cruz, the progenitor, is represented in Figure 14.

As it turns out, all 14 of the direct male descendants of Jose were or are metateros. Since Jose was himself a metatero his occupation has been transmitted through a total of 3 descending generations. Between the Cruz and three other patrilines in San Sebastian society, the metatero population has a deep and extensive kinship base."

p192-193 (contextual information)

"There are variations in the recruitment and enculturation process as can be inferred from the following account by a San Juanero of how he became a metatero:

From the beginning I was a peasant. But in 1933 one of my compadres, Efren Carranza, introduced me to the occupation. He said to me: 'Compadre, if you want to learn I will teach you; give me a peso to buy you a handpick so that you can begin to make manos'. I gave him the peso and with it he bought me a little hammer — second hand — I remember. And with that second hand hammer he went to Jose the blacksmith who made two picks from it. Until this day I remember that Jose charged me $1.50 for those two picks. And the day that he finished making those tools, I went to pick them up very contentedly and, then, went to see an old metatero named Manuel Cruz. Manuel sold me some pieces of stone, some unfinished manos, for 5 each; and on that first day I finished a mano. I returned to my house very pleased with myself because I had gone to the house of Sr. Cruz so that he could teach me. However, I was somewhat pensive as well because, on that first day, a little piece of stone got into my eye; that night I sawinsert_drive_file193 little lights and I said to myself: 'What will I do to protect my sight'? But that week I finished 6 manos and we went to Oaxaca to sell them. There I bought myself a pair of dark glasses which I've worn ever since to protect my eyes.

Little by little I began to make 1 mano daily, then, 3 ever 2 days. Afterwards I was making 2 daily. That was enough because in those days a laborer earned only 25 from sunrise to sunset — a hard day's work; I was able to go to the fields to bring alfalfa for my animals and then by 6 in the afternoon finish 2 manos; that gave me an income of 50 daily.

I began to make metates without a maestro; I observed how others did the work and then I made some wooden models — tracing the form from an old metate. Then, I began to cut stones using a ruler and a pencil to mark the cuts. I started using a little chisel — about 15 centimeters long — and slowly but surely I perfected my finishing techniques. In 1939 I began to make specially decorated metates (carved in bas relief) — those that sell for 200 pesos each now and then were worth only 8 pesos.

In San Juan one observes more young boys working in the metate industry than in San Sebastian. Many young San Juaneros (some as young as 8–10 years) wander through the quarries picking up discarded pieces of stone ("pepenando la piedra") unsuited for making full-size metate products but which are suitable for making small metates and manos which are sold as toys. Many of these boys have made agreements with village traders for the sale of their products. By the time they reach their teens, many of these San Juan youths are skilled stone cutters and have only to gain experience in the quarries to qualify as full-fledged metateros."

p194 (contextual information)

"**Becoming a full-fledged metatero requires a mastering not only of the techniques of manufacture of the products but of the strategy and tactics of quarrying and stone-cutting. These can be learned only through experience gained by working closely with skilled quarrymen.** Several Teitipac metateros have learned quarrying by working in the quarries of Oaxaca City where they find periodic employment as laborers. Here they learn how to set charges of blasting powder to blast stone loose from its native beds, as well as scientific techniques of stone cutting. This knowledge they have put to good use in their own quarrying operations."

4.3 Maya Area

4.3.1 Tzeltal

Nash, J. C. (1970). In the eyes of the ancestors: belief and behavior in a Mayan community. Yale University Press. p.55-56. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nv09-007

"Learning to make pottery. **A girl begins to make pottery about the age of eleven. First she makes small replicas of the articles her mother produces. Then, under her mother's direction, she learns to prepare the clay.** The mother feels the clay with her fingers, telling her daughter to add more sand if this is lacking. She is taught to knead the clay three times. In making the most difficult phases are mixing the clay, forming the base, and rounding out the walls of the vessel as it is raised. The child is expected to learn slowly and is encouraged gently to improve each step. While the child works on her first pot, the mother makes a similar one; **three or four times they exchange vessels, and the mother shapes her daughter's pot into a better form**.

About two generations ago, marriages at the age of eleven or twelve were the rule. Since most of the intensive learning of pottery techniques begins at that age, **pottery was taught to the bride by her mother-in-law if she resided in her husband's house** (Blom and La Farge 1927). Most marriages now are contracted for girls from fourteen to seventeen years of age. By this time they are already proficient potters and accustomed to working with their mothers. Therefore there is greater stress on their remaining in or near the parental home after marriage.

The pottery is fired in the streets of the town outside the house, usually after the women have made four or five dozen items. The pots are set on planks forming a rough square around the fire in the center. Charcoal is added to the fire as the brush or corn husks set between the pots begin to burn. The women tend the pots, turning them every five minutes until the surface is well dried and hardened. Wood is added to the fire, and then the jugs are stacked in a pyramid, each one protected from the one it touches with a broken piece of pottery. The stacking is crucial to permit even firing and must be done carefully so that none are broken. Once the insert_drive_file56 pyramid is complete, wood is laid against the pots in a tepee formation. When the sawmill in the vicinity was in operation, flat boards–scraps of cut lengths–were used, but now only logs are available. Corn husks or dry straw are stuffed between the planks or logs. When a large number of puts are being fired, the men usually help at the final stages to remove the charred planks with poles. If men are not available, the women of the household often call upon their neighbors for help. In this operation, the women wear sandals and hats for protection from the heat. When the pots are cooled, the women, sometimes with the help of the men, stack them in net bags, six to a net with straw protecting the pots."

Hunt, Muriel Eva Verbitsky. 1962. "The Dynamics of the Domestic Group in Two Tzeltal Villages: A Contrastive Comparison." In Micro-Film Thesis, 7, 223 leaves. Chicago, Ill.: University of Chicago Library. p.168. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nv09-008.

"In Amatenango, **perhaps because of early marriages which increase the nurturant aspect of the mother-in-law role (she certainly takes part in the socialization of the daughter-in-law by teaching her how to make pottery)**, and because of the establishment of a relationship before the younger woman had many chances to establish adult affective ties with any woman other than her own mother, the mother-in-law-daughter-in-law bond is less tense. The women create a strong solidarity bond in their active cooperation in pottery making, and their association is both intense and constant. The result is that "a successful relationship between mother-in-law and daughter-in-law is not an authoritarian one, but is rather characterized by mutual cooperation" (Nash, J., 1960: 29, 62-67). We can also observe that the residence pattern grants, in Aguacatenango, unconditional power to the mother-in-law, while in Amatenango, where a woman after marriage can reside with her own parents if she dislikes her in-laws, a mother-in-law is made to be more careful about her own behavior towards the younger woman. If she is too harsh, she can find herself with no female help in the house, and losing a son at the same time, which means that the household loses two laborers."

5 North America

5.1 Arctic and Subarctic

5.1.1 Aleut

Petrivelli, P., Brelsford, T., & McNabb, S. (1992). The Aleutian-Pribilof Islands region. In Social indicators study of Alaskan coastal villages. I. Key informant summaries: Vol. Vol. 1 (Issue 151, pp. 367–449). The Region. p.440-441. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=na06-077

“**In traditional Aleut society, sustained socialization of young males occurred at the hands of the maternal uncle, a relationship termed the avunculate.** The range of physical and intellectual skills required to become a successful maritime navigator and hunter was broad and complex, and many years were devoted to this task. **Young women were instructed in the manufacturing, food preparation, and ritual skills by their mothers.** Today the avunculate exists in only the most attenuated form, if at all. Many informants do not recognize this as a special relationship, while some fishing families spoke of sending their son out on a boat with his uncle for a season to teach him the ropes.

Today, despite the passing of the distinctive form of the avunculate, Aleut young people are subtly but pervasively socialized into key sets of understandings. Subsistence skills are an important component but not the key marker. Aleut language is transmitted intergenerationally only in Atka to any significant degree, but all the same, distinctive communication patterns, codes of deference in social interaction, and shared understandings about the Aleuts' place in the history of the region are passed on. In addition, key production skills, such as salmon fishing in the eastern Aleutians or the fur seal harvest in the Pribilofs, are set up and transmitted as ideals. Participation in the insert_drive_file441 Orthodox Church is also one of the key elements of Aleut continuity passed down to young people although the frequency of practice varies by community and family.”

Lantis, M. (1970). The Aleut social system: 1750 to 1810, from early historical sources. In Ethnohistory in southwestern Alaska and the southern Yukon; method and content [by] Robert E. Ackerman and others (pp. 139–301). University Press of Kentucky. p.196. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=na06-074

“The preparation of children for their rugged life began early: “**Scarcely has a boy attained his eighth year, or even sometimes not more than his sixth, when he is instructed in the management of the canoes, and in aiming at a mark with the water javelin. An old chief of Oonalashka, whose confidence I had gained very much, informed me that the making and managing their baidarkas is a principal object of emulation among them**” (Langsdorff 2:41–42).

Jochelson (1925:93) and I observed boys casting respectively lances with blunted heads and toy-model lances. Their game of throwing toy spears at an object suspended on a long string was a good test of markmanship and strength, as the moving object was not an easy target. A variety of skills had to be acquired: “**According to an old Aleut saying, a lad had no right to**

marry before he had ground off a penis-bone flaker to its base in the manufacture of stone implements" (Jochelson 1925:71).

The education of the boys consists mainly of an attempt to make them endure anything.... Later they taught them how to ride the bidarkas, how to navigate it in strong winds, during the incoming or outgoing tides; how to save themselves and others in dangerous situations and especially how to be skillful in hunting and war. House duties hardly ever entered into their education as they, outside of building houses and utensils, concerned themselves only with storing fish or hunting animals; it was furthermore not considered a duty of men. It was considered unnecessary to teach the boys petty household duties.

The education of girls consisted of moral education. **Besides the girls were taught how to make any kind of clothing, to embroider designs with the hair of animals, to weave carpets [mats] and baskets**, to clean fish, and to prepare for eating anything that her husband might obtain.

It was also her duty to collect roots, grass and other things. To clean houses and the general care of the houses was considered the duty of slaves.

Generally the parents do not try to accustom their children to work or housekeeping, saying "our children are not from the parentage of slaves (Veniaminov 2:72–73)."

5.1.2 Alutiq

Hrdlicka, A. (1975). The anthropology of Kodiak Island. AMS Press. p.79. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=na10-007

"They endeavor in every way to teach the children to endure without complaints, sickness as well as inclement weather. From the very infancy they purposely keep them in dry or again wet places. If the child cries, they dip it into water, even though this be in winter, and hold him there until he stops crying. When the child begins to walk they stop looking after him, and he is free to run barefooted, over ground and stones, in warm and cold weather; and for this reason they later on endure such hardiness, rawness of air and bad weather. In the winter, even in strong frost, they chase all the children into the sea and hold them there for a prolonged time.... The father is glad when the son throws a stone at him or at his mother and wounds him to blood. **From the earliest age the children commence to construct boats, launch them on water, make bows and arrows, learn how to shoot birds, or into a target. When the son reaches 5 or 6 years the**

father takes him with him in his baidarka and teaches him how to behave with same."

"**The girls are taught to sew, make designs, embroider bags, braid cords, weave hats, mats; make containers or buckets — in a word, everything belonging to their sex**. And one has to wonder at the art and taste of some of their productions. It is true that all this is done very slowly. Frequently on the making of a helmet for a festivity the woman spends several months — only afterwards to give it for a few leaves of tobacco."

5.1.3 Chipewyans

Irimoto, T. (1981). Chipewyan ecology: group structure and caribou hunting system. In Senri Ethnological Studies (Issue 8, pp. 1, 2, 12, 196 , plsyrd). National Museum of Ethnology. p.143. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nd07-004

"It is noteworthy that the time use for snowshoe frame making by individual no. 103 (*age 15*) was observed in season III. He tried to make a pair of small snowshoes for his younger brother. **Since it was his first attempt at making snowshoes, he watched individual no. 101 (adopted father of no. 103, age 71) and tried to follow his example. His first trial was not successful; he did not judge the flexibility of the material well, and it broke as he tried to bend it. He obtained more material and made a second attempt. Individual no. 101 was not observed giving much advice to him, but others, including individual no. 102 (adopted mother of no. 103, age 71), encouraged and advised him.** This account demonstrates the process of learning manufacturing techniques and skills. While snowshoe making is conducted by the more elderly Chipewyans, the younger Chipewyans also participate in the process of learning and training."

Jarvenpa, R. (1980). The trappers of Patuanak: toward a spatial ecology of modern hunters. In Mercury series (Issue 67, pp. xv, 258). National Museums of Canada. p.146-147. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nd07-021

"**On the trapline itself the apprentice serves in an auxiliary capacity. He accompanies the experienced trapper on his rounds of inspections, but he does not construct or maintain sets himself. Rather, he learns by assisting his partner in these matters.** For example, he positions the canoe against a stream bank so that the other man can easily set a trap in the water. Also, he may be expected to quickly fetch the appropriate materials needed to construct a set. The boss will order his assistant to cut trap stakes or to gather twigs and brush to touch up a lynx pen among other things. Further, the apprentice normally carries a pack containing the traps, rope, bait, hatchet and other supplies needed for constructing sets. In general, the younger man's role is to make his partner's work easier and more efficient and to profit by observing.insert_drive_file147 Eventually he will experiment by constructing a few sets of his own.

While traveling between camps or while moving about on the trapline an experienced trapper expects his apprentice to build fires to warm and sustain him. This is one of the most important supportive responsibilities characterizing the apprentice role since it contributes directly to a boss' physical comfort and nourishment when he needs them most. On days with extensive travel periodic fires give trappers the opportunity to renew their strength with tea, warm themselves and dry out wet clothing. The ability to construct suitable fires quickly under varying conditions requires a fairly extensive knowledge in selecting sites, wood and tinder. Often the apprentice is left to prepare such fires and to cook meals while the boss is occupied with other matters. For example, to save time a trapper will instruct his partner to remain behind while he leaves the main trail to inspect a short line of traps.

In most cases the subservient role of the apprentice is easily adopted by the novice trapper. **The years of conditioning of a son to his father's directives serve as preparation. An apprentice-son is particularly deferential and respectful. An asymmetrical partnership of brothers may be marked by slight competitiveness, but generally the younger man accepts the decisions of his sibling.** Moreover, an apprentice is anxious to gain his boss' approval and to prove his maturity and resourcefulness. Gaining acceptance as a "man" is most important as illustrated by August Ptarmigan's concern about mastering fire building on the trail:"

5.1.4 Innu

Lips, J. (1947). Naskapi law: law and order in a hunting society. Transactions of the American Philosophical Society, n.s., Vol. 37, 379–492. p.414. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nh06-008

"**Tomo Kak'wa was one of the teachers of the boys of the Lake St. John Band. I saw him often when he, despite the handicaps of his wretched body, sat before his tent, surrounded by five or six boys who listened attentively to his stories of the olden times. His customary topics were the glorious adventures of the past of their tribe**; the four "magic men" from the quarters of the globe; the chieftains of the game animals and practically all other spiritual and technical elements of Naskapi life. He was very skillful at mixing his sincere teachings with gay anecdotes at the right moment, and often enough the wide square resounded with the laughter of the old sage and his disciples.

The education of the girls covers, as far as general knowledge is concerned, partly the same subjects as that of the boys, the "classroom" being for both almost exclusively the family tent and the teachers their parents But the emphasis is naturally laid upon the teaching of recognized feminine skills. Among them are the arts of snowshoe lacing; the manufacture of moccasins birch-bark baskets and rabbit-skin blankets and the techniques of netting, needlework, and other handicraft reserved for the feminine sex."

5.1.5 Kaska

Honigmann, J. J., & Bennett, W. C. (1949). Culture and ethos of Kaska society. In Yale University publications in anthropology (Issue 40, pp. 366, 12 plates). Yale University Press. p.185-186. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nd12-001

"Education. **Most education for living is received by the child in the course of performing routine activities. Such education is unformalized and undirected.** Our characterization above of the training of dogs reflects some of the features of the child's education. Instruction and direction are rarely explicit. "Do this," is the formula, and the child is left with the task of working out the details of an activity for himself. If the young girl is asked to make a fire and tries to light large pieces of wood without first splitting kindling, the task will be taken over by an adult. The child may then observe the correct sequences for the completion of the activity, but few people trouble to drill these into the learner. **Sometimes generalized instructions are furnished to children who, in carrying these out, often become confused.** Thus we observed one fourteen year old girl make tea by putting the leaves into cold water. Nobody referred to the muddy quality of the beverage. The same kind of teaching was used with the ethnographer. **Activities were illustrated but never explained in detail, the exposition of principles being ignored.** On the second day of a journey with dog team and toboggan, the handling of the vehicle was entrusted to the ethnographer without a word of instruction regarding the technique of managing the dogs. Meanwhile the guide walked on ahead, rapidly breaking trail, so that when the traces fouled and the dogs rebelled, he had to retrace almost an eighth of a mile. **Another observation that is worthwhile making so far as education is concerned, deals with the relatively narrow range**

of stimulation available to children, particularly in winter, when youngsters lacking toys are confined to small cabins and rarely interact with parents.

The girl's education is derived from her household duties and begins quite early. From the age of six or seven, she hauls water and packs wood. A few years later she learns to cut and sew moccasins, often practicing with scraps of moosehide; tends the rabbit snares; cuts wood; washes clothes, and helps with simple cooking—all by following the examples of her mother or older sisters and with a minimum of verbal instruction. A young girl may at first rebel at economic chores and seek to shirk them, but by the time she is nine or ten years old the rebellion has almost totally disappeared and she is only anxious to complete her duties quickly so as to have free time available. **Boys' education begins somewhat later, at the age of eight. Now they begin to accompany fathers or older brothers on short fishing, hunting, and trapping trips. The boy learns masculine skills by observing older men prepare snow-shoe frames, hew lumber, or manufacture implements, vehicles, buildings, and tools.** While the boy assists older men in these activities, by collecting firewood and handling tools, his real economic contribution begins much later than the girl's. Not until he is near puberty, does the boy begin to manufacture apparatus on his own or go out to hunt large game with an agemate.

As early as the age of three, a child begins to try using snowshoes. Such learning is insert_drive_file186 gradual, but by six the child is already able to cover ten or more miles with these travel aids. Children begin to feed themselves at about three years of age."

Teit, J. A., & Helm, J. (1956). Field notes on the Tahltan and Kaska Indians: 1912-15. Anthropologica, No. 3, 39–171. p.115-119. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nd12-005

"The attainment of puberty was considered the most critical and important period in a girl's life. What she did at this period would effect her future life and ensure her good luck or the reverse. She therefore at this time had to undergo a period of careful training to make her lucky and fit her to become a useful woman and esteemed member of the tribe.

Pubescence was considered a "great mystery". At this first budding out of womanhood girls were believed to be endowed with certain supernatural powers over persons and things the misuse of which might do very great harm both to themselves and people in general.insert_drive_file116 A girl could unwittingly cast spells on people if not prevented. She was also unclean and therefore was capable of giving offence to game animals or of making them afraid. For these reasons, her powers had to be directed and controlled. Thus girls were isolated etc. and many restrictions and taboos were enjoined on them. Certain of these restrictions extended to beyond the period of the girl's training and isolation.

On the first appearance of catamienia a lodge was at once erected for the girl and to this she had to retire. Girls' lodges were constructed of the same materials and were of the same shapes as other lodges of the tribe. All were small in size or generally just large enough to accommodate the girl for sleeping, sitting and shelter. Lodges used by rich people's daughters were of the ordinary lean-to-types and covered with skin instead of brush etc. The lodge was first pitched about five hundred yards away from the main lodge or lodges of the people or sufficiently far away to be beyond the general noises of the camp. After three or four months the lodge was shifted closer to the people's camp and at the same time the brush or other floor covering of the lodge was renewed. After a time (perhaps another three months) the lodge was shifted again closer and the shifting occurred at intervals until at last just before the girl's period of isolationinsert_drive_file117 ended her lodge was so close to the camp it almost formed a part of same. **As soon as the girl was isolated, her mother, aunt or some elderly relative took charge of her and became her attendant and instructor.** The girl was robed in a blanket of dressed caribou skin, which covered her almost down to her feet. The upper part reached above her head over which it was drawn so as to extend beyond her face on both sides. Some of these robes had the upper part sewed into a rude hood which covered her head and extended forward about two feet beyond her face, precluding her seeing on each side. The robe was held in place by a leather belt around the waist. She used the ample hood part of the robe to hide her face when she was aware of anything being near which should not see her face or which she herself should not see. It was believed her glance was harmful to men and to game etc. Men should not see her face nor be seen by her. For this reason all males, including her nearest relatives, kept away from her for several months and she kept out of their sight. Only females were allowed to visit her. **Female relatives and neighboring women sometimes came to chat with her and give her instruction.** They continued to visit her during the whole time of her training. During this period the girl had to learn something of all the work and duties which would devolve on her in future years.insert_drive_file118 She had to acquaint herself with and, as much as possible, perfect herself in all kinds of women's work. This was done under the guidance of her attendant and the women who visited her from time to time. Her work was examined and criticised by these women, who also related her progress and always encouraged her to persevere and do better. **Thus she commenced to do all kinds of sewing and embroidery, to make moccasins, do netting, fill snowshoes, etc.** It was considered right that she should be industrious at this period so she would in after years have this virtue. Therefore, /in order/ that she be kept busy, and to ensure sufficient practice, many women brought moccasins for her to make or to mend, and sewing to do for them. She had to finish properly all the work brought to her and received no payment of any kind for her work. **The girl had to work diligently at making robes, clothes and all kinds of things made by women, and thus also learned all kinds of cutting, shaping, and sewing.** Girls had to keep out of sight of people generally and men in particular and therefore spent by far the greater part of their time in their lodges. Girls wore no head bands, but tall caps of leather were used by some. Of late years these have been made of red or blue cloth. Garters of twisted skin enclosing birds down were used. Each girl used a drinking tube and scratcher of bone suspended around theinsert_drive_file119 neck by a leather string. If a girl drank water without the tube, the water would hurt her stomach and cause her internal sickness of some kind. Tubes were made of the long wing bones of swans and geese. Eagle wing bones and lynx bones were not used. As a rule they were entirely unornamented in any way. They were generally carried in tube carriers made of square and oblong pieces of skin varying in size and worn with a string around the neck. The piece of skin was folded in two and the middle sewed across a little below the fold making a pocket to fit the circumference of the tube. The skin below formed two flaps which were often ornamented with fringes and pendants as well."

5.1.6 Ojibwa

Hilger, M. I. (Mary I. (1939). A social study of one hundred fifty Chippewa Indian families of the White Earth Reservation of Minnesota. The Catholic University of America Press. p.101-102. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=ng06-012

"**After puberty rites, boys and girls were no longer considered children**; they had outgrown the first stage of Chippewa life, namely childhood, and had entered the second, that of "old man" and "old woman". They were ready now to begin their vocational training.

Parents instructed them in the work expected of them as adults, and insisted that they learn by helping them at all times. Boys went on hunting expeditions, and, at times, on the war path with the father and older men. Boys, too, learnt to construct bows and arrows and canoes.

The girl learnt all the household duties, such as gathering and chopping wood, making maple sugar, gathering wild rice, preparing and cooking food, sewing, **making wigwams, mats, and birch-bark vessels and beadwork**. Some of the old women told how they stole away from work, whenever an opportunity presented itself, to play with their dolls, only to be laughed at or chided by the older women. Back to work they must go, doing things on a small scale first, and eventually receiving praise and recognition from elders for a piece of work begun and completed by their own personal efforts–efforts insert_drive_file102 which might have resulted in a tanned hide, a pair of moccasins, a wigwam, or some maple sugar."

Densmore, F. (1929). Chippewa customs. In Bulletin (Issue 86, pp. xii, 209 , plates). U.S. Govt. print. off. p.60-61 https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=ng06-005

"Nodinens said, "I had four brothers and two sisters. My father gave counsel to the boys and taught them the best way to live, and insert_drive_file61 my mother told the girls how to conduct themselves. The first thing I can remember was my mother's saying 'always be industrious. Get up early and do your work. Do you hear me? Do you hear me? Do you understand?' She took hold of my ear and pulled it hard as she said this, and she kept on until I said that I understood. She told me that I must live a quiet life and be kind to all, especially the old, and listen to the advice of the old. She said that people would respect me if I did this and would be kind to me. She said, 'Do not run after a boy. If a young man wants to marry you, let him come here to see you and come here to live with you. This is the reason I am always telling you to be industrious and how to live, so when you have a home of your own you will be industrious and do right to the people around you.' **She taught me to make mats and bags, to make belts and moccasins, leggings, and coats for my brothers**, so they would never lack for these things."

p. 61-62 (contextual information) The companionship of a Chippewa girl and her mother was very close and the child learned many household tasks by watching and helping her mother. **Thus a little girl was early taught to chop wood and carry it on her back, and as she grew older she carried larger and larger bundles of wood until she could carry enough into the wigwam for the night's use. A girl was taught to make little birch-bark rolls like those which covered the wigwam**, her mother saying "you must not grow up to live outdoors and be made fun of because you do not know how to make a good wigwam." She insert_drive_file62 was also taught to make maple sugar, gather wild rice, and do all a woman's tasks. Odinigun said that "a man had no bother thinking he must go home and do this or that, for he knew that his wife would attend to it." He said that if a girl was well brought up and was capable she usually got a good husband. Her reputation often went to other villages, and a young man would seek her out because he had heard that she was quiet and industrious. Such a couple usually had a fine family, the children were well governed and did not quarrel. In concluding this subject Odinigun said that in his old age he noticed that those who had kept the advice of the old people had lived long and led a quiet life, but those who did not regard their advice had had much trouble and died."

p.65 (contextual information)

"**The little girls made miniature mats from rushes and were encouraged to take the bark from small birch-bark trees and make rolls similar to those used for wigwam covers; they also made little birch-bark utensils similar to those made by their mothers.**"

5.2 Eastern Woodlands

5.2.1 Fox

Joffe, N. F. (1963). The Fox of Iowa. In acculturation in seven american indian tribes (pp. 259–332). Peter Smith. p.268-269. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=np05-068

"A child was strapped in a cradle-board, and carried about on its mother's back. **Education of any child lay chiefly in the hands of its parents. No favoritism was shown to children until the boys reached the hunting age, and then the oldest child or the one who was the best hunter became his mother's favorite. When a boy was old enough to handle a weapon (six or seven years of age), he left the tutelage of his mother, and his father began to take care of the boy's training.** At this age he was given a small bow and arrows and sent to hunt birds. His first kill was made into a feast, regardless of size, and set before someone not of his immediate household. (This is but an instance of the idea of first fruits, which permeates the harvest festivals, etc., of the Fox today.) When he was about twelve, he received a gun and went to hunt small game. **In the winter evenings his father would instruct him in the arts of hunting, tracking, and the manufacture and use of hunting magic.** If a young boy fell heir to the chieftainship, he was formally introduced to the council, and until old enough to take his seat in that body, he was instructed by the elder male relatives of his father's family.

Paralleling this curriculum, **the girl was taught the various domestic arts by her mother**. At the age of seven she began to sew clothes for her dolls, at nine or ten years of age she helped to plant insert_drive_file269and hoe the garden and learned to cook, when she was ten she began to fetch wood and water, and **at twelve to make moccasins and house mats**. Her mother watched her carefully for signs of approaching puberty. Upon the advent of the menarche, she was isolated in a special bark hut under the care of an old woman, usually her grandmother. The girl had to cook for herself on a separate fire. For ten days she was kept concealed, with a blanket over her head, for her glance would blight the earth. At the end of this period, she was led to a stream and bathed, after which she was pecked all over her body, especially on the back and thighs, with a sharp object. The cutting was done so that the blood would flow profusely, in order that she might not menstruate too freely. She was then conducted back and remained in seclusion for another ten days. At the end of this second period she was bathed again, dressed in new clothes and returned to her home. Her old garments were left in the menstrual hut and were worn during subsequent catamenial periods."

5.2.2 Natchez

Lorenz, K. G. (Karl G. (2020). Culture Summary: Natchez. Human Relations Area Files. p.10. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=no08-000

"From birth, all children's heads were flattened for aesthetic reasons, with a plank attached to their cradleboard. By age three, all children began to learn how to swim. **Both boys and girls lived work-free lives until around age twelve, when each gender began to help out the same gender parent and learn particular skills. Girls learned to grind maize, gather firewood, tend the fire, and to make pottery, mats and animal skin clothing. Boys, like men, are said to have worked far less around the village than the women and girls; they instead focused on tasks beyond the village, such as hunting, fishing, cutting firewood, and making tools and weapons.** After puberty, both young men and woman were encouraged to engage in premarital sex. If a pregnancy should occur, the young woman's parents would help to raise the child if their daughter wished to bear and keep it. If not, then the infant would be strangled outside the house and buried with little fanfare."

5.3 Northwest Coast and California

5.3.1 Nuu-Chah-Nulth

Kenyon, S. M. (1980). The Kyuquot way: a study of a West Coast (Nootkan) community. In Mercury series Paper - Canadian Ethnology Service; Diamond Jenness memorial volume (Issue 61, pp. xviii, 180). National Museums of Canada. p. 82. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=ne11-022

"**The young men who have begun to carve within the last few years often learned the art as children from their fathers or uncles**. They have started to use their knowledge as they come to realize the potential market for genuine Indian goods. They have the tools from their childhood (of limited range, often only a short-bladed knife and a chisel) and have gone to **libraries in Campbell River and Victoria to study pictures of old works of art**. Gradually they are building up their own folders of designs for painting, carving and engraving."

5.3.2 Quinault

Storm, J. M., & Capoeman, P. K. (1990). Land of the Quinault. Quinault Indian Nation. p.54. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nr17-006

"**Several families together were also a more efficient unit for education. Children would be exposed to that much more basket weaving, tool making, blanket weaving, carving, and so forth in a house with many adults and older children.** Since grandparents were the main babysitters and educators, one grandparent could take care of all the grandchildren together without anyone having to move to some other place. This freed all the younger adults for their endless outdoor jobs."

5.3.3 Tillamook

Sauter, J., & Johnson, B. (1974). Tillamook Indians of the Oregon coast. Binsfords & Mort. p.32-34. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nr21-005

"**Model canoes, small bows and arrows, miniature war clubs of whale bone, and diminutive fish spears all reflected his training**, Feats of personal discipline and courage were used for his childhood training. Swimming in rough water for long periods, running up steep hills, rubbing his body with nettles, and adventuring into the forest at night were but a few of the tasks assigned by the tribal elders.

A small girl underwent similar training, only hers stressed perseverance, not courage. She was taught the art of food gathering and preparation and the important task of making tools out of the many types of mammal bones present in the villages. She also learned the basket-weaving art of the Salish insert_drive_file34 tribes, recognized as one of the finest weaves of all the Indian tribes of the Americas. She learned to gather clams in freezing water, to dig for roots in muddy swamp areas, and to gather fruits and berries and wood. She was also schooled in home-making, sewing, matmaking, and most enjoyable of all, personal grooming."

Skoggard, I. A. (2022). Culture Summary: Tillamook. Human Relations Area Files. p.4. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nr21-000

"The practice of using a cradle board to flatten the foreheads of babies distinguished all freemen. At six years old, the parents held a naming ceremony, which involved ear piercing for boys and girls. They were named after deceased relatives. **Gendered activities were taught at an early age. Boy's toys included canoes, bows and arrows, and war clubs. Girls were taught to gather food, weave baskets, and make bone tools**. Corporal punishment was rare. Moral tales about the fate of bad people were told around the hearth in the evening. An important stage in the life cycle for young men and women was acquiring a guardian spirit, under the tutelage of a shaman. Boys in their early teens went out alone into the forest to fast, hoping to find a spirit associated with the career they desired, that of a hunter, shaman, or warrior. They would not declare their spirit until the winter ceremony. At her first menstruation a young woman was secluded in a hut. During this time women would fast and seek a guardian spirit chaperoned by a female shaman. A woman married soon after her first menses."

5.4 Plains and Plateau

5.4.1 Assiniboine

Denig, E. T., & Hewitt, J. N. B. (John N. B. (1930). Indian tribes of the upper Missouri. Government Printing Office. p.520. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nf04-005

"The domestic government is exercised by both father and mother. As long as the child is small the mother has the sole charge of it, but when it begins to speak the father aids in forming its manners. If a girl, he makes toy tools for scraping skins and the mother directs her how to use them. **She also shows her how to make small moccasins, etc. Their first attempts in this way are preserved as memorials of their infancy.** When a little larger, the scale of operations is increased and sewing, cooking, dressing small skins, and garnishing with beads and quills are taught, together with everything suitable for a woman's employment. If the child be a boy the father will make it a toy bow and arrow, wooden gun, etc.

When a little larger he will give him still stronger bows and bring unfledged birds into the lodge for his son to kill. Larger still and he runs about with a suitable bow after birds and rabbits, killing and skinning them. Another stage brings him to learn the use of the gun, to ride, approach game, skin it, etc., all of which is taught him by his parent. The rest he acquires from the time and facility their manner of life affords for practicing these pursuits, and at the age of 17 or 18 makes his first excursion in quest of his enemies' horses."

5.4.2 Blackfoot

Ewers, J. C. (1945). Blackfeet crafts. In Indian handcrafts (Issue 9, p. 66). United States Indian Service. p.29. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nf06-041

"Elderly Blackfeet say that quillwork was regarded as a sacred craft by their people. **Girls or young women were taught the craft by the older women. First the younger women were initiated ceremonially into the art of handling the sharp-pointed quills. It was claimed that women who attempted to do quillwork without having first experienced this ceremony would surely "go blind" or suffer from a swelling of the finger joints. Then they were taught how to use the tools of the quillworker's craft and how to employ the various methods of quill sewing, plaiting and wrapping known to their elders.** Quills of the same size in assorted colors were kept in long, cigar shaped, bladder containers until ready for use. The quillworker's kit also included one or more bone or metal awls for making holes in the skin, a quantity of sinew thread for passing through these holes in attaching the quills to the surface of the skin, and a bone or horn instrument for pressing and flattening the quills after they had been sewn to a flat surface. The Blackfeet quillworker held quills in her mouth to soften them, then flattened them between her teeth and put them in place at once. It was customary for a beginner to give her first piece of quillwork as an offering to the sun."

Ewers, J. C. (John C. (1963). Blackfoot Indian pipes and pipemaking. In Anthropological Papers (Issue No. 63-67, pp. 29–60). U.S. Government Printing Office. p.49. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nf06-025

"Running Crane's daughter, Deathly-Woman-Cree-Medicine (born ca. 1868), was the only woman living on the Blackfeet Reservation in the decade of the 1940's who had made pipes. **She told me that she had learned the craft by watching her father and her mother, Crane-Old-Woman (who also was a pipemaker), at work. She followed their example in using stone from the Running Crane quarry site for her pipe bowls. She followed her father's example in employing a sharpened piece of hoop-iron to drill the bowl and stem holes, in shaping the exterior of the bowl with a file and removing the file marks with sandrock.** Mrs. Cree Medicine preferred a sage fire for blackening the surface of a pipe bowl. She also greased the bowl before placing it over the smoke of the fire. She knew that other pipemakers used a buckbrush fire for blackening pipe bowls, but she thought buckbrush made too hot a fire and might crack the stone."

5.4.3 Klamath

Pearsall, M. (1950). Klamath childhood and education. In Anthropological records (Vol. 9, Issue 5, pp. 339–351). University of California Press. p.349-350. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nr10-004

"**In late childhood girls also begin to learn how to make mats, baskets, and clothing. Of these, mat making is considered the easiest and is the first attempted. Even in early childhood most girls try to weave tule mats.** They make small dome-shaped lodges for their dolls and cover them with mats. **The mother or grandmother helps the child whenever there is time.** When the girl begins to make larger, more utilitarian mats, her mother gives her the materials and shows her how to use them.

In the wintertime girls sit beside their mother or grandmother as the elders make baskets. The girl is given some of the tules to split with her thumbnail and twist on her thing. If the girl's twists come unraveled, nothing is said because the materials can be used again. The girls usually soon tire of twisting tules, and they are allowed to do as many or as few as they wish.

Small baskets are made for girls, and often the first basket a girl makes by herself is a tiny one for her dolls. **The mother or grandmother starts the basket and shows the girl how to weave it**. If the girl's baskets keep coming unraveled, she is teased a little and watched till she gets it correctly. Later the girl makes larger baskets with designs in tule root or porcupine quills. Certain designs are known as "beginners' designs" because they are simple to make. Other designs are much more complex, in particular those which adorn the basket bats. Few girls learn to make the large decorated baskets before they reach maturity. A girl often learns basketry from her mother-in-law.

Clothing for the entire family is made by the mother. In pre-white times dress for the wealthy was of the Plains type. Poorer people wore skirts of tule or buckskin and went barefoot. Capes of tule or shredded sagebrush bark were also worn. Very young children went naked. The mother prepares the tules and other materials for skirts and capes, and she is the one to tan and sew hides for skin clothing.

The making of clothes is one of the last skills a girl acquires before marriage. In fact, some do not learn the art until after that time. Hides are so valuable that the mother does not want to risk having the girl spoil one.

Most boys in late childhood aspire to become good hunters. Game food is far less important in the Klamath diet than fish or wokas, and insert_drive_file[p.350a] not all men are good hunters. Hides are valuable, however, and a good hunter gains prestige. Part of the rigid physical training of the boys is directed toward preparing them for hunting. They are told, "Only smart ones who aren't lazy can be good hunters.""

p.350 (contexual information)

"As the child grows older he gradually acquires the skills with which he must be familiar. The greatest part of this knowledge comes from accompanying parents or grandparents in their daily routine of work. Adults often explain how things are done, but they have no well formulated program of education. The youngster is often the one to ask to be allowed to perform certain tasks. He is praised if he starts to help at an early age and is given what instructions he needs to carry out the work in which he has evinced an interest."

5.5 Southwest and Basin

5.5.1 Hopi

Dennis, W. (1940). The Hopi child. D. Appleton-Century Company, Incorporated, for the Institute for Research in the Social Sciences, University of Virginia. p.50. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nt09-031

"**Girls also play at pottery-making, shaping small pots and actually firing them out of doors. This sometimes accompanies the pottery-making of a mature woman**, but as the shaping and firing of pottery is only an occasional activity at Hotavila, the girls frequently perform the sham pot-making by themselves."

Voth, H. R. (1903). The Oraibi Oaqol ceremony. In Publication (pp. 5, 46 , plates). Field Columbian Museum. p.36. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nt09-009

"The women engage in considerable basket-making throughout the day, as they have to provide not only those to be used by them and the novices in the dance, but also a good many to be distributed as prizes. **Some of the novices assist in the manufacture of trays, being instructed by the women** (See Pl. XVI). This is a very tedious work, and the women complain a great deal about sore hands and aching bones."

5.5.2 Navajo

Adair, J. (1944). The Navajo and Pueblo silversmiths. In Civilization of the American Indian series (pp. xvii, 220). University of Oklahoma Press. p.89-91. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nt13-090

"In regions like Zuñi, Smith Lake, and Manuelito, the traders keep the smiths busy with orders for the greater part of the year. The more silver a smith can turn out, the greater his income; therefore, **it is to his economic advantage to teach the art not only to his sons, but also to his daughters and his wife**. They will increase the family income in direct proportion to the amount of silver they make. Women whose husbands make only a small amount of silver are not apt to learn the art."

"If a Navajo learns how to make silver from a relative, he does not pay for his instruction. **He asks**

a relative to teach him to make silver, and in return he assists the master smith with his work. The [90] advantages are mutual—the apprentice learns a craft which will yield an income to him in the future, and while he learns, the experienced smith is enabled to increase his own income by turning out more silver. Or, to state this the other way around, the experienced smith asks one of his relatives to help him with his work, and in return for this help, he is willing to teach the craft to the assitant. This state of affairs exists in the regions where silver has been extensively commercialized and where a smith needs help with his work. In fact, such smiths often retain the services of their apprentices after they have gained skill in the art. **A smith is considered skilled in the craft when he has mastered the art of soldering.** Charlie Bitsui paid Francis Yazzie ten dollars a month for helping him. Peter Roans learned from his cross-cousin, John Hoxie, and when he became skilled, he was given money enough to buy clothes at the post, and in addition scrap silver and turquoise. Suski helped his father, Chai Begay, and in return his father made occasional gifts of small amounts of money."

The novices often work for a master smith for several years. In the meanwhile, they save their money and buy their own tools. **It is often two years, and sometimes longer, before a smith has a sufficient number of tools to set up his own shop and work independently.**

"Many silversmiths have learned the craft just by watching other smiths at their work. When I asked Charlie Houck from whom he had learned the art, he replied: 'No one taught me, I just learned myself. I watched other fellows make silver, then I went [91] ahead and made some myself. I was able to do everything but solder and I learned how to do that from Red Mexican.' **Many smiths have learned the art in just that way, with no formal instruction of any sort, but it is considered dishonest if one smith watches another without telling him that he wants to learn.** I asked Atsidi Yazzie how he learned. He said: 'I didn't learn from any one person. I just picked it up by watching different smiths at work. I stole the art from some of those smiths. I watched Atsidi Chon make silver, but he didn't know that I was learning while I was watching him. Then when he went away for a day or so I would go over to his hogan near Klagetoh and use his tools and solder to make some buttons and other things out of my own dimes and quarters.' "

p73-76 (contextual information)

"After the silver had cooled for about ten minutes, Tom told me that it was ready to pound. Gripping one end of the bar with pliers, I held the bar over the anvil and pounded down on the metal. I had given it just two blows with the hammer when the silver flew out from the pliers and landed three feet away. Tom laughed. I hammered once more. Tom instructed me to strike the blows at an angle so that the edge, and not the flat end of the hammer head, would hit the metal. After half a dozen blows, the silver again flew out from the pliers, this time hitting me in the head. Hammering had always looked very easy. As I had watched smiths at work, I had realized that it was tiring work and that it took a certain amount of strength, but I thought there was no trick to it. One just pounded.

Before that first day was over, I learned that **there is a great deal of skill in hammering properly**. One doesn't just pound. Ever stroke has to be directed. If he does not hammer evenly, the silver spreads more at one place than at another, and twice as much time [75] and effort is spent in trying to get the bar back into shape. Holding the silver with the pliers is most difficult at first. With every blow there is a jar on the hand in which the pliers are held. This sets the beginner on edge. If he grips the silver too insert_drive_file73-76 4 tightly, he tries himself out, mars the metal where the tool grips, and does not allow sufficient 'give,' a failure which causes the metal to fly out of the pliers. If he does not hold it tightly enough, the metal flies out anyway. Only experience teaches just how hard to grip the silver."

"Tom Burnsides had agreed to teach me how to work silver, so one morning I arrived at his hogan ready to start work. When he wanted to know what I would like to make, I asked him what would be best for a beginner, and he advised me to make a bracelet. Then he asked me whether I wanted to begin with silver or learn first how to work copper or lead. **He said that many Navajo smiths worked at copper or lead before they started on silver, because those metals were cheaper and easier to work.** When I told him that I wanted the feel of working silver, he gave me one and one-half slugs and told me to melt them. I placed the silver in the crucible and lighted the torch. Tom said that a small amount of silver may be melted with the torch; the forge is usually used only when melting three or more slugs at a time. I held the muzzle of the torch, slanting at an angle, to one side of the crucible; but Tom told me that the torch should be held above the crucible so that the heat would spread evenly over the whole surface of the silver. Then he placed the ingot mold near the crucible, propping it up against a tool, explaining again that the mold must be hot when the silver is poured in, or the metal will cool too rapidly, and crack when it is pounded."

p79-80 (contextual information)

"There are **individual differences** in the way silversmiths work. In many respects Charlie's work differs from Tom's. While the finished pieces that each makes conform to Navajo traditional patterns, there are differences in their technique. There are differences in the way they handle their tools, in the way they pound the silver, and in the way they melt it. These variations are due to differences in the way the smiths originally learned from their Navajo teachers. Each smith developed his own style of working, and once a pattern was formed, it was adhered to. Muscular co-ordinations became fixed as habits. When Charlie wrapped a piece of wire around two pieces of silver which were to be [80] soldered together, he always held one end of the wire in his mouth, leaving one hand free to hold the silver. Tom never used his mouth, but rested the silver against something while he tried the wire. This is only one of many differences in their working methods. There are probably as many differences in the muscular habits of silversmiths as there are individuals who follow the craft."

Mitchell, approximately, Rose, & Frisbie, C. J. (2001). Tall woman: the life story of Rose Mitchell, a Navajo woman, c. 1874-1977. University of New Mexico Press. p.204. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nt13-275

"Of course, **my mother and I were always weaving when we weren't busy doing other things, and we'd tell the girls to sit and watch us. We'd show them how and let them try, too. My mother helped teach Ruth to weave and to respect the loom and all the weaving tools; she taught her to take care of those things properly because that was part of learning to weave, too.**"

Shepardson, M., & Hammond, B. (1970). The Navajo Mountain community: social organization and kinship terminology. University of California Press. p.105-106. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nt13-241

"**The principal craft in Navajo Mountain is weaving, an occupation usually of women. One hears now and then of a man who weaves, but this is so unusual that he may be suspected of being a transvestite or latent homosexual.** No men weave in Navajo Mountain, but two men relatives, living elsewhere, were mentioned as weavers. Men make the upright loom that is set up each time a new rug is begun either in the hogan if it is cold weather, or outside under a brush shade (ramada), if the weather is warm. Making rugs is a leisure-time occupation, and often weaving is begun when the household is in want of cash. Rugs are sold to the traders and the money belongs to the weaver, but as with other forms of income in a household, the payment may be used to settle family bills or buy clothes for the children.

Every woman in Navajo Mountain knows how to weave, having learned the art as a child from an older woman, her mother, her mother's sister, or her mother's mother. Most insert_drive_file106 Navajo Mountain rugs are small, rough horse blankets, but a few women know how to create fine rugs. One person alone conceives the design and controls the making of the rug, although others may help out under the weaver's direction."

Bailey, F. L. (1942). Navaho motor habits. In American anthropologist, n.s.: Vol. Vol. 44 (pp. 210–234). American Anthropological Association, etc. p.232-233. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nt13-033

"**Children have been observed learning motor habits in two ways: by unconscious imitation, and by the definite effort of an adult to teach them a specific skill. One informant says that she is teaching her seven year old daughter to weave. She has already shown her how to card and she does it fairly well. She adds that some girls don't need to be taught because they learn by watching, but her daughter had to be taught. One man said that when boys are old enought [sic] to handle the equipment properly, they are taught silversmithing and moccasin making**.

A two year old boy was being taught by his father to shake a rattle in this manner. The man crossed his legs, tailor-fashion, and placed the boy in his lap in the same position. Reaching around him, he put the rattle in the boy's hand in the proper position and made the shaking movement several times with the boy's hand. He sang as he did this. At the same time across the room the boy's grandmother made shaking motions calling to him to imitate them. After much encouragement he finally did shake the rattle a few times by himself, and was praised.

A two year old girl was being taught to grind flour by an older sister, who placed the child in front of her at the metate with the child's hands between her own on the mano. As the older girl ground, the child's hand moved with hers.

Frequently a child is given a piece of dough to play with while the woman is kneading the bread. The child tries to imitate the motions of the woman in shaping the tortilla.insert_drive_file232-233 Usually there is some slight evidence of success, but the attempt ends by the child eating the dough raw, or throwing it away."

Tschopik, H. (1941). Navaho pottery making: an inquiry into the affinities of Navaho painted pottery. In Papers of the Peabody Museum of Archaeology and Ethnology: Vol. v. 17 (Issue 1, pp. 85, plates). Peabody Museum of American Archaeology and Ethnology, Harvard University.

p.46-47 https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nt13-040

"It obviously would be unwise to draw sweeping conclusions from the data at hand. There are, however, **in the learning-teaching relationships involved in both pottery and basketry (8) manufacture, some indications that young girls tend to learn the crafts insert_drive_file46 3 rather from the maternal grandmother (or her sisters) than from the mother.** Dr. Kluckhohn informs me that it is his observation that the bonds of relationship between maternal grandmother and grandaughter [sic] are apt to be extremely close. On the other hand, it has been pointed out above that in several instances the mothers did not manufacture pottery at all. It is difficult to interpret this situation in view of the obsolescent nature of the craft under consideration, and it seems not unlikely that the picture has been somewhat warped because of this factor. Whether or not the maternal grandmother-granddaughter relationship rests primarily upon clan affiliation or upon actual blood kinship, it is impossible to determine from the data. However, it has been pointed out elsewhere in respect to the learning of song ceremonials that 'there is little evidence that clan, as such, is a factor of importance in the initiation of the teacher-learner relationship.' (9)

"The initiative in the establishment of the teacher-learner relationship might be taken by either of the individuals involved. **A young girl might aid her grandmother in the collection and preparation of the raw materials, in this way gradually absorbing the details of pottery manufacture (14 and 36). (10) 10. Hill states: 'The knowledge of the art was acquired early in life. Children of five or six were told to watch their mothers and grandmothers as they worked, and were given lumps of clay with which to imitate the actions of their elders. As they grew older they made small pots under supervision and were corrected when they made errors' (1937, p. 11).** In other cases, the training assumed a more formal aspect, as illustrated by the following accounts of informants 32, 15, and 192. I learned to make pottery over on the other side of Gallup at a place called bahasa. My maternal grandmother told me that it would be a good way to make money to buy my things with. (11) 11. The extent to which trade in pottery was formerly carried on is difficult to determine at present. Informant 15 recalled these prices received for pottery: a big sheep and a lamb for a small cooking pot; a second-hand pendleton blanket for a medium sized cooking pot. She sat with me and helped [47] me until I learned how. At first I started with a little painted bowl, because this is the easiest kind of a pot to make. I had a hard time learning because my first ones used to split all the time before they were ready to bake. My first pot wasn't very good; it took me about a year to learn (32).”

Parezo, N. J. (1982). Social interaction and learning in the spread of Navajo commercial sandpaintings. In navajo religion and culture: selected views (Issue 17, pp. 75–83). Museum of New Mexico Press. p.78-79. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nt13-253

“As shown in Table I, there was little difference in the learning patterns of men and women. **Commercial sandpainting is one of the few Navajo crafts in which manufacture has never been restricted to one sex. Men were slightly more apt to watch and then experiment independently than were women, and there was also a tendency for men to teach more formally than women, especially when those men had either attended or completed high school. All mentors who taught more than one person tended to use multiple methods of instruction, however. Their children usually learned to make sandpaintings by watching, while clan relatives or visitors were often shown the process more formally. Those people who began because of social obligations to the instructor tended to be taught more formally**.

Thus, the technical aspects of the art of commercial sandpaintings were learned, by and large, in informal situations, often by watching and self-instruction combined with some criticism, or by varying amounts of verbal instruction combined with experimentation and practice. As expected, this type of informal or non-institutionalized learning reflected interaction patterns. Most new sandpainters learned from their relatives, especially members of the nuclear family.

As Table II shows, **relationships between teachers and students (those learning to paint) were overwhelmingly kin-based. Ninety-four percent were taught by affinal or consanguineal relatives.** This reflects the nature of Navajo communities, which are small and rural in character; almost everyone can establish some sort of consanguineal or affinal relationship with others in the area. Sixty-five percent of the learning relationships occurred in the informal context of the nuclear family with the neophyte being taught by siblings, parents or spouses. This reliance on the family was more evident for women than men, although it was the dominant pattern for both. Almost three-fourths of the women learned in the context of the domestic household, while only a little more than half of the men did so. This is because women often learned from spouses while helping their husbands with their work, while insert_drive_file79 men frequently learned from clan brothers. When learning occurred outside the immediate household of the neophyte, the focus for both sexes was on one’s own clan relatives and affines rather than on one’s father's clan relatives or "miscellaneous relatives," those who did not belong to either clan but to whom a relationship could be traced. Learning from affines was especially important for women, second only to the importance of the spouse and family of orientation as sources of this technical knowledge."

5.5.3 Tewa Pueblos

Jacobs, S.-E. (1995). Being a grandmother in the Tewa world. American Indian Culture and Research Journal, Vol. 19(2), 67–83. p.73. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nt18-018

"Red Clay Basket stopped working on pottery in about 1982. Prior to that time, **she had taught her techniques to her daughters and some of her granddaughters. Two daughters became potters; no granddaughters have become potters. I have observed Red Clay Basket's grandchildren and great-grandchildren of both sexes forming pottery pieces while in their sayaa's care.** When their pottery pieces were finished, they were included among the bowls, plates, and other items she either took to the Santa Fe Indian Market or sold to the traders who used to come to the house to buy pottery and carvings. The money was given to the children."

5.5.4 Western Apache

Roberts, H. H. (1929). Basketry of the San Carlos Apache. In Anthropological papers of the American Museum of Natural History: Vol. v. 31 (pp. 121–218). American Museum of Natural History. p.133. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nt21-013

"**Each generation of daughters learns from the mothers and grandmothers how to make the much-used basket utensils. After having mastered the technique sufficiently to justify more particular undertakings, the young women can begin to manufacture for the tourist trade, if they choose, but it is the old women (sometimes they are blind) whose work is most prized.** Undoubtedly, of late years the demand has largely created the supply of specimens showing superior workmanship as well as striking designs, a host of which are ultra-modern and utterly lacking in symbolism. These are human and animal figures, which always seem to attract immediate attention. They are in no sense historical and although a story often accompanies them, it seldom bears any intimate relation to the true mythology or life of the tribe. Such attempts at realism have crept in quite recently and their interpretations are usually "manufactured." Restricted in outline as such figures are by the medium of expression employed, really good results are rarely achieved."

5.5.5 Zuni

Hardin, M. A. (1989). Zuni pottery. In seasons of the kachina: proceedings of the california state university, hayward, conferences on the western pueblos, 1987-1988 (Issue 34, pp. 133–163). Ballena Press. p.154. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nt23-019

"This is precisely what did happen at Zuni. In the 1930s Catalina Zunie taught pottery making classes in a local school (Hardin 1983:37). **Young Zuni potters also continued to learn their art in the context of family manufacture.** Today the Zuni pottery tradition is taught in the community's schools as well as within some families."

6 Oceania

6.1 Australia

6.1.1 Aranda

Basedow, H. (1925). The Australian aboriginal. F. W. Preece and sons. p.85-86. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=oi08-007

"**The boys are early in life schooled in the practices of carpentry, so far as they are applied to the making and shaping of domestic utensils and weapons with the few crude implements at their disposal**.

Further, they are instructed in the knacks and arts of [86] handling and throwing weapons of chase, attack, and defence. The lads take to this instruction enthusiastically. For instance, whilst being taught the art of boomerang-throwing, one might daily see a youngster, even in the absence of his master, posing in the attitude demonstrated to him, without actually letting the piece of wood, which answers the purpose of a weapon, go out of his hand (PlateXIV, 1).

Boys are not allowed to handle real boomerangs, spears, or shields before they have undergone the first initiation ceremony. If they did so, the offence would be looked upon as an insult to the dignity of the men who have qualified and are thus entitled to the privilege of carrying such weapons on parade. The offence is in fact, on a point of decorum, similar to the case of a fellow in the 'rank and file' wearing the sword or insignia of his superior officer."

6.1.2 Tiwi

Hart, C. W. M. (Charles W. M., & Pilling, A. R. (1960). The Tiwi of North Australia. In Case studies in cultural anthropology (pp. xii, 118). Henry Holt and Company. p.49. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=oi20-001

"**Baskets made of bark with gummed sides were made by the women, but the painted designs upon these baskets were applied by the men**, in line with their monopoly on all work that required paint. These baskets of various sizes but little variation in shape were used for all domestic tasks involving the collection, storing, transporting, and preparing of vegetable foods, and were sufficiently watertight to enable water also to be carried in them. Ordinary wooden spears (without barbs or painted designs) and a great variety of throwing sticks were made by all men, young or old, but important old men bothered with them very little, considering such routine manufacture beneath them. These workaday spears and throwing sticks lay around every camp in abundance, and a man who needed spears or sticks in a hurry could always gather up a bundle in a few minutes. **Small boys picked up the techniques of making spears and throwing sticks by spending time with older boys who in turn improved their skill both in making and using hunting weapons by spending time with the local young men**.

Although much of this learning was fairly random, other instruction was not. During his initiation period a youth spent long intervals isolated in the bush with a couple of older teachers from whom he received training in religious and ritual matters. At the same time, of course, it was inevitable that the novice absorb some of the older men's experience in bushcraft. There was no corresponding initiation period for girls. What they learned, they learned first from the older women of their childhood household and later from the older women of the husband's household into which they moved as child-brides after puberty. **In all households the supervision by the elderly women of all younger women included the training of both female children and young wives in the things all females should know—things which were mostly concerned with collecting and preparing vegetable foods and the making of baskets.**"

6.2 Melanesia

6.2.1 Kapauku

Pospisil, L. J. (1958). Kapauku Papuans and their law. In Yale University publications in anthropology (Issue 54, pp. 296, plates). Published for the Dept. Anthropology, Yale University. p.40-41. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=oj29-001

"**Approximately at his seventh birthday, he experiences a radical change in the educational efforts of his parents, who start to focus upon transforming this female like individual into a male**. Now the little boy is invited by his father to spend the night in the men's room. In the beginning, the boy sleeps a few nights with the father and then returns to the mother's quarters. As time goes on, he sleeps more and more often with his father. Finally, spending the night with the mother becomes the exception to the rule. Also, he eats with the menfolk of the household, gets a stronger bow from his father, and abandons the fishing net. His apron is exchanged for a small " koteka, a penis sheath," made of a long gourd held in position by a string which goes around the waist of the little body. Then, wearing the garments that adult Kapauku use, the boy is teased into more prudishness in the presence of women.

At this time the mother's command vanishes and for it is substituted more intensive control by the father. He scolds more severely and even uses a stick to make the son obey. Nonetheless, the punishment is never harsh. The father is usually lenient with his son, and it is primarily the child's love, respect, and admiration for the parent which are the stimuli for the boy's education. The child's training is never over-intensified and is more sporadic than constant. Often it depends on the boy whether he will follow the parent to the field where he will be taught to clear the underbrush, to cut trees, and build fences. Every now and then insert_drive_file41 the father and son will spend an afternoon in discussing the value of different types of currencies, pig raising, current prices of different merchandise, and the way to become rich. These abstract discussions, illustrated by the father's own experience, are enjoyed by the eagerly listening boy, who is already aware of the importance of economy and wealth. The parent also enjoys these talks which help bolster his own ego. He tells his son about his exploits and success which, because modesty is a value in this culture, he cannot discuss with his male relatives or friends, and which his own wife, if told, would not believe anyway.

The boy is ready to learn the skills his teacher has mastered. **Making bows and arrows, rolling**

string on the thigh, making nets, roasting gourds for penis sheaths, polishing stone axes and stone knives, and chipping flint by percussion are a few of the many subjects a Kapauku man-in-the-making has to study. When the opportunity arises and a new house is needed, the boy may learn how to cut trees, to split logs, and to use an ax and two wedges to make planks. He may also be permitted to help with the construction of the house itself. **Jobs requiring great strength are not taught until the boy reaches about fifteen years of age. Then he is shown how to hollow out a huge log with an ax and shape it into a canoe, how to smooth the floor of the canoe with the same tool changed into an adz, how to make holes for the long vines which are used for pulling the craft to the lake or river and for mooring it.** It is also at this time that the boy, for the first time, tackles the soil of the valley's bottom lands to carve out a drainage ditch with a wooden, leaf-shaped, spadelike tool. **Hunting with bow and arrow, setting traps, and cutting up of the animals, though explained by the father, are practiced in the adolescents' gang in a playful way until the boy becomes an expert in these arts**. During the long evenings the boy listens to myths, legends, and actual history told and discussed by the adult members of the household; thus he acquires the awareness of the time perspective which helps him make sense of his life."

6.2.2 Kwoma

Whiting, J. W. M. (1941). Becoming a Kwoma: teaching and learning in a New Guinea tribe. Published for the Institute of Human Relations by Yale University Press. p.47-48. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=oj13-001

"**Children watch their parents make tools but do little such work themselves. Boys sometimes help their parents by fetching materials for various utensils, and girls begin netting bags before they reach adolescence, but otherwise toolmaking is restricted to older persons**.

In general, the Kwoma child discovers that it is necessary to work to get food, and learns, in part by observation and in part by participation, the techniques that have been developed in the culture for producing it. He is forced to assume responsibility for some of this work, is allowed to help with insert_drive_file48 other tasks if he wishes, and is definitely debarred from still others. Although this work is directed toward the satisfaction of hunger, the children cannot always appreciate this and must be coerced. **A Kwoma does not take full responsibility for many of the tasks until adolescence**; then he learns by experience that no work means no food. The coercion, as we have seen, consists in scolding or beating the child for not doing the tasks expected of him, and in warning him of the dire consequences which follow an undesired act."

p.46 (contextual information)

"Hunting is restricted entirely to men. Boys begin as soon as they reach the status of childhood, chiefly killing snakes and lizards. They usually kill these animals with sticks or stones, but sometimes capture them with a noose tied to the end of a stick, an implement which they manufacture themselves. Bows and arrows are known to the Kwoma, but they are poorly constructed and rarely used. A boy's father usually makes him a small bow and some bird darts, and the boy then tries stalking birds. He never attempts a shot unless he can get within a few feet of the bird, and even then the poorly constructed arrow shot from a crude bow is likely to go wide of the mark. Despite the poorness of the weapons, some boys become remarkably adept at stalking. Mes, an adolescent who had won a name for himself as a good stalker, became my shoot boy. He had, of course, never fired a gun in his life, but I instructed him in its use and he took about a dozen practice shots at a target. On his first foray for pigeons he brought down three with only four shells."

6.2.3 Manus

Mead, M. (1956). New lives for old: cultural transformation–Manus, 1928-1953. Morrow. p.115-116. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=om06-002

"So I realized that I must discover how these gay Manus children turned into such unlovable and unloving adults. The children's life was not a sort of holiday which stern adults permitted them in preparation for a hard adult life. Had it been, this would have made the whole process more explicable—like the behaviour of self-made men who want their children to have all the advantages they didn't have, which over time may crystallize into a culturally patterned indulgence toward children, as it has in the United States. But the people of Peri, in 1928, were not generously according their children a happy carefree period as a preface to a later life of driven hard work. It was not a conscious and calculated mitigation of the hardships of life, like special treats at Christmas; it was rather an accident of the way in which Manus religious and economic life was constructed. Each household had characteristically only one protective Sir Ghost. Very occasionally some just-deposed ghost might be assigned to a male child instead of throwing him and his skull out altogether. But children on the whole had no ghosts to go about with them. As long as they were within the village, they were beneath the watchful protection of the series of Sir Ghosts of related households. When men went abroad they took their Sir Ghosts with them, but outside, and even inside, the village there was danger, and children were safest when close to their homes. The land was dangerous for children; there were crocodiles, snakes, cannibals, and the tchinals, the dangerous magical familiars of the land people. Fear of the land barred children from most of the work at which they would have been most useful—going into the bush in search of rattan, or leaves, going to market, running errands to the next village. **The manufactures that went on in the village were mainly canoe building and making fishing devices—highly skilled activities which children watched rather than participated in.** In the dangerous water world the care of small children was not left to older children; parents themselves took complete charge of babies and children under insert_drive_file116three. **As the girls grew older and were betrothed, they were drawn into the string-making and bead-stringing, grass-skirt-making and mat-making of the older women, but the boys were left free to play in the water all day long.** So Kilipak, reminiscing twenty-five years later, describes his childhood:"

6.2.4 Trobriands

Scoditti, G. M. G. (1989). Kitawa: a linguistic and aesthetic analysis of visual art in Melanesia. In Approaches to semiotics (pp. viii, 457). Mouton de Gruyter. p.46-48. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=ol06-032

"**After initiation, a child goes to stay with his initiator, in his hut, sometimes in another village if the carver lives in a region different from that of the pupil. He is adopted by the carver**; that virtually means the child's separation from his parents, brothers and sisters, as well as from his peers. His relationship with his parents becomes very weak, especially at the beginning of his new life. For example, during 1973-74 and between June and December 1976, one of the sons of Mesiboda Wakuwa, who lives in Kumwageiya village and belongs to the Malasi clan and susupi sub-clan, Mwabei Kaikuyawa (who had been initiated by his paternal uncle, Mwagula Wakuwa) had visited his parents just a couple of times, even though his new village, Kodeuli, is not very far from Kumwageiya, only about twenty minutes walk away.

Even if an initiate stays in the same village where he was born, he lives separate from the other members of his own family and from his peers. In fact, while the majority of the inhabitants of a village go to the gardens (cf. Malinowski 1935) the initiator and the initiate usually stay in their hut, on the veranda, which is a sort of workshop, and spend most of their time carving.

The veranda of the carver's hut is one of the points where the inhabitants of a insert_drive_file47 village gather when they come back from the gardens to watch the work of the carver and his initiate. Anyone who wishes to see how the lagimu of a master carver (tokabitamu bougwa) or a simple carver (tokabitamu) is progressing, or who wishes to know about the work of the initiate, knows where to go. Sometimes the comments made by a commoner are appreciated, especially if he is a kula man (one who takes part in the ritual performances of the kula cf. Malinowski 1922) who can appreciate better than others the artistic qualities of the prowboards.

The veranda of the hut of a carver is a privileged place where the group of the carvers, especially the best carvers of Kitawa, meet in order to comment on the latest work of one of them, as well as on the small models of lagimu or tabuya made by one of the pupils. An initiate can learn much from these comments and criticisms, especially from the technical viewpoint.

During the first years of the apprenticeship the parents of the initiate continue to bring gifts, such as betel nuts, fish, pork, yam and tobacco, to the initiator of their son. But the food offered to him must not be eaten by the apprentice. After two or three years, depending on the age at which the child was initiated, the apprentice sometimes works in the garden of his teacher and goes to fish, or to pick coconuts and bananas for him. The behaviour of the initiate during this period is very important and is subject to the control of the teacher in the sense that if the apprentice reveals a generous nature, the carver will teach him the technique of carving as well as some aesthetic devices for better achieving certain effects. When a carver teaches his art not only to his favourite pupil (yobweiri) but also to other pupils, one of them may surpass the other in generosity. For example, Towitara told me that Pilimoni and Gumaligisa had received a good training from him because both of them were very generous in bringing him gifts, even though he had favoured Gumaligisa because of his superior skill. On the other hand, one of Towitara's nephews, the above-mentioned Toganiu, although initiated by him (because he is a son of one of Towitara's sisters), had a defective training because he was judged to be rather mean. So, during the apprenticeship the pupils compete within the same workshop, or school of carving, for the best training. When an initiate starts his training he belongs to the workshop of his master, which is quite different from the workshop of another carver, even if all of them are in the same village. A workshop is formed by the group of pupils of one of the tokabitamu , especially a tokabitamu bougwa , of Kitawa. Its organization recalls the medieval workshop, where a master of art was helped in his work by a group of apprentices whom he taught how to pierce, to carve or to paint and, initially, the first elementary rules of his profession. On Kitawa a pupil who belongs to one of the workshops must help his initiator-master to shape the framework of a lagimu or tabuya and finish off the graphic signs carved on the wood surface, as well as to collect the pigments used to paint the prowboards of the kula canoe, and help his master to colour them, and so on.

In short, during the first years of his apprenticeship an initiate learns the basic in-sert_drive_file48 rules of carving, as well as the terminology of the tools of the profession, and he does all the small jobs which in a medieval workshop were done by the helper of a Maestro d'arte."

p52 (contextual information)

To sum up, in his apprenticeship the initiate learns to organize the graphic signs on a wood surface which has been cut in a given shape, while the symbolic meaning, that is, the content of the entire surface as well as of the single graphic sign, is not the focus of his training. And this confirms that what an apprentice should learn is the control of the 'grammar' of the abstract composition only. In fact few initiates or carvers know precisely what lagimu means, and all the carvers of Kitawa recognize that when we talk about that subject we enter into the field of suppositions and probabilities (cf. Siyakwakwa's statements C.SS, 75 – C.SS, 77. – C.SS, 83). A good carver is judged on the basis of his technical and aesthetic ability.

p56 (contextual information)

According to Tonori, Towitara and Siyakwakwa an initiate becomes a tokabitamu when he carves a life-size lagimu and/or tabuya, or a real kula canoe, i.e. **after fifteen to twenty years of apprenticeship**, during which he has followed the norms imposed on him by his teacher-initiator, including the respect of taboos. Siyakwakwa, answering the ethnographer, who had asked him when a pupil is insert_drive_file57 judged a carver, replies: 'When you know how to carve two, three or four lagimu well, and know how to carve the canoe for the kula, only then will you be a real carver.' (A.SS, 454).

p183 (contextual information)

In the poetic formulae both the initiator and the initiate are assimilated to the hero Monikiniki, who manifests himself to them, at the beginning of the poetic formulae, as spring water spouting from the rocks, that is, through an image which symbolizes the power of creation. As god creates life, in the same manner a carver creates symbols (cf. in the poetic formulae of Towitara the distichs III,b.; IV,b.; VI,b.; VII,b. and IX,b.). As a god gives his creation to mankind, in the same manner a carver gives his creation (the graphic signs carved on the prowboards, for example) to the other inhabitants of the village (cf. in the poetic formulae of Towitara the distichs IX,b. and in the poetic formulae of Todubwau the distichs VII,a.; VII,b. and IX,a.). The power of creation is given to the initiate-carver as a gift of the god-hero Monikiniki during the initiation, even if this acts as a simple premonitory sign of this power. But while Towitara and Siyakwakwa affirm that the gift must be confirmed by evidence of real skill in the initiate's work during the period of apprenticeship, **Tonori practically dismisses the importance of the apprenticeship, and in his statements B.ST, 33a and B.ST, 35 stresses that only a 'gifted child' can carve – i.e., someone who has been initiated, who has been 'penetrated' by the god-hero Monikiniki. For Tonori, as stressed in Chapter III, the apprenticeship is simply a technical refinement of the primeval inspiration, or a sort of 'actualization' of the power of intuition.** The relation between the initiation and the following period of apprenticeship is purely technical. A carver should first possess an intuition of what he wishes to express, and should then search for a 'form' which represents this intuition on the expression plane . The technique of expressing an intuition in 'forms' is learned through continuous exercise. But without an 'intuition', that is a sign of the power of creation, a carver cannot carve a significant symbol. And even if an initiate eats the taboo foods he can still carve, because he has already been inspired by the god-hero Monikiniki, whom he has insert_drive_file184 received through red betel nut and spring water. To support this feeling Tonori gives the example of Togeruwa Matawadia who, in spite of his disregard of the taboos, could nevertheless carve a lagimu, even if not a refined one. The fact that Togeruwa can carve a lagimu appears to the eyes of Tonori, as a sign of the primeval power of creation which an initiate receives as a gift at the moment of the initiation.

6.3 Micronesia

6.3.1 Chuuk

Goodenough, W. H. (1951). Property, kin, and community on Truk. In Yale University publications in anthropology (Issue 46, p. 192). Published for Dept. of Anthropology, Yale University, Yale University Press. p.53-54. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=or19-001

“Fighting skills in aboriginal times included knowledge of **the manufacture as well insert_drive_file54 as of the use of the various weapons: the club, spear, sling, knuckle-duster, and in more recent time the knife and rifle**. Of great importance, too, was a knowledge of the various holds in a system of hand-to-hand encounter remotely reminiscent of Japanese jiujitsu. 28 **To acquire these skills required considerable practice. In aboriginal times the various lineages used to hold periodic month-long training course in their respective meeting houses. Although each political district fought engagements as a united military group, training was given independently by the various lineages. Those present were the men of the lineage, the husbands of its women, and the sons of its men, in conformance with the pattern of confining the transmission of knowledge to one’s children and one’s lineage mates.** It is said that by no means everyone knew all of the various weapons nor all of the tricks of hand-to-hand fighting. Knowledge of the proper magic was required in the manufacture of the several weapons and also to increase the effectiveness of their use thereafter. It is not surprising, therefore, that fighting skills were treated in the same way as other types of incorporeal property.”

Gladwin, T., & Sarason, S. B. (1953). Truk: man in paradise. In Viking Fund publications in anthropology (Issue 20, p. 655). Wenner-Gren Foundation for Anthropological Research. p.414-415. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=or19-002

“**Rachel gives a long description (five typed pages) of her learning to make woven waist mats (lavalavas), a process which began when she was thirteen. In the initial phases of her learning her parents made her begin by herself several of the many steps in the manufacture of lavalavas from hibiscus and banana fibers. When she got into difficulties they laughed at her and then finished the job themselves. When it came time for Rachel to learn to make the basket in which the fibers are placed for weaving her father took her over to his mother’s house in order to have her teach Rachel this skill which her own mother did not possess.** Her father’s mother was indignant that they should be teaching Rachel so much when she was so young. When her father insisted that his mother make a basket she did so; but she did it rapidly and refused to answer Rachel’s questions. They thus acquired a basket but Rachel did not learn how to make one herself. Rachel then continued her learning—how to dye the fibers, set up the loom, weave, and so on. “Whenever I complained of being tired of learning these different kinds of work all the time insert_drive_file415 they would speak to me sternly; then I would just work on, afraid they would beat me.” Finally when she was seventeen Rachel made her first lavalava. She told her mother she was going to play at her father's mother's house and stayed there two days making the lavalava. When she was ready to leave her grandmother cried and asked her to stay longer and not leave her alone. Rachel promised to return and brought her masterpiece home to surprise her parents. They were delighted; they congratulated her and her father said her mother would wear it herself rather than trade it to the men who came in from Puluwat as was customary."

6.3.2 Kiribati

Koch, G. (1986). The material culture of Kiribati. Institute of Pacific Studies of the University of the South Pacific. p.25-26. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=or06-009

"Traps (ū, Plate 5) for catching moray eels are widely used (cf. 31, film 7). However, in many of the settlements at any given time **there are only a few men who know how to construct an ū** or to bait it. The materials used for constructing such traps are shoots and branches of the salt bush Pemphis acidula Forst., (ngea), a heavy and tough ironwood, which are bound together with strong coconut fibre cord (kora). **Their construction is a well-kept insert_drive_file26 family secret, handed down from generation to generation, but it is certainly true that a person skilled in this will let a close friend know the secrets of the method of construction.**"

6.3.3 Marshallese

Carucci, L. M. (1987). JEKERO: symbolizing the transition to manhood in the Marshall Islands. Micronesica, Vol. 20(nos. 1-2), 1–17. p.2-3. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=or11-026

"Certain attainments are central to becoming an adult male or female; they are the symbolic foci which define in vivid detail what it is like to be a particular kind of person in Marshallese culture. In one such event, a young boy goes through the training necessary to make coconut toddy. **Ujelang girls learn a corresponding set of skills—weaving mats and shaping other prized female goods.** They also begin to receive the knowledge needed to use and interpret the supernatural. **A second core aspect of male maturity apprenticed a young boy to a canoe making specialist where skills critical to becoming a man were insert_drive_file3 learned. The boy joined the sailing group headed by his mentor and acquired all skills to build and sail outrigger canoes.** Within the past 25 years, however, canoe building has been replaced by the manufacture of plywood motor boats. Outrigger canoe construction became a specialized art, known only to middle-aged and senior men. Thus, in the late 1970s, making coconut toddy was the central event marking the incorporation of male children into the man's domain. The next section explores the structure of this event, while the final comments situate toddy drinking in the more recently emerging framework of alcohol consumption."

p.4

"Coconut sennit (ekwaal) is then made to wrap the tendrils and secure the spathe after tapping a tree. Each man should manufacture his own sennit, but few under age 40 now know how to make coir. Younger men show little interest in such arduous tasks. Younger men must use sennit made by others, thus increasing the sources of contamination. Evil magic, readily embedded in braided hair, the woven ends of baskets, or ekwaal, is often blamed for declining returns of toddy. To make sure the coir is free form defilement, a young boy's instructor frequently provides his twine. When a tree does not produce well, the sennit will be replaced. It could be too large in diameter, contain too many splices, or have been imbued with evil magic, even after its manufacture."

6.3.4 Ulithi

Lessa, W. A. (1950). The ethnography of Ulithi Atoll. In CIMA report (Issue 28, pp. vii, 269 leaves). University of California. p.212. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=or20-001

"The education of the child broadens out in earnest during this period. **Boys learn how to fish, climb trees for palm toddy and coconuts, manufacture rope, and otherwise make themselves useful to their elders**. Girls learn how to cook, weed, collect wild plants, fruits, and leaves, and generally aid their mothers. However, **the learning of economic skills is informal and does not proceed much beyond that which can be gained from observing older people at work.**"

6.4 Polynesia

6.4.1 Bau Fijians

Tippett, A. R. (Alan R. (1968). Fijian material culture: a study of cultural context, function, and change. In Bernice P. Bishop Museum bulletin (Issue 232, pp. vi, 193). Bishop Museum Press. p.50-53. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=oq12-004

“Experience.—It was not any man who could make a club—even a vunikau, the simplest root-stock. Experience was more than knowing the resources of the environment, although it did include this; **for the craftsman drew from insert_drive_file51 insert_drive_file52 the fellowship of other club makers and the accumulated knowledge of the craft group handed down from past generations.**2 This group knowledge included more than familiarity with materials and skills. It required an understanding of tribal needs and fighting techniques. Behind every artifact was a set goal. Furthermore there were master–pupil relationships. **Master and pupil shared emotional experiences because the honor of one was also the honor of the other.**3 The pupil's first fine club was a symbol of a psychological bond between master and pupil.

Expression.—Clubs are not mere creations of form, design, beauty, or even symbolism. The psychological bond between craftsmen showed an attitude to the craft, something more than experience, which is worked in to the artifact, as Boas pointed out (1955, p. 12). The symmetry of Cakobau's superb throwing club in the Suva museum is something more than form; more even than the capacity for precision throwing given by the symmetry; it shows something of the forgotten craftsman himself, his tradition and his fraternity. This accumulated body of experience is interpreted. It is more than a developing proficiency, for the craftsman is expressing himself, as Herskovits put it (1951, pp. 381, 403, 408).

Knowledge of when and how to experiment.—Variation in the design and ornamentation of Fijian clubs reveals a freedom for experiment, at least within certain prescribed limits, set, no doubt, by the group itself or the craft rituals. We have no detail of these rituals, having only the knowledge of their existence. The question of whether or not the craftsman always achieved what he set out to do, in design for instance, has been discussed (Reichard, 1933, p. 7), and at least it can be said that his taste determined the results. If this is all that can be said of the design, the artifacts themselves were certainly predetermined by the craftsman's capacity to perceive the resultant club in the tree. The club was already in the root or the forked limb, and the craftsman, having seen this, conceived much of his experimentation before he cut the tree. This premeditation has been checked against craftsmen who cut oars, boat parts, and house fittings currently. **They confirm that they see the final product in the raw material before they cut it.** In the creation of clubs, the knots, roots,insert_drive_file53 small branches, and natural deformities actually suggest the experiment. A whorl of a parasitical creeper round a hardwood stem may offer a Fijian artisan a rare opportunity to produce a thing of beauty, but the thing itself will be limited or conditioned by his basic categories. There are some fine examples of this type of experimentation on Fijian clubs in the Suva museum."

6.4.2 Marquesas

Suggs, R. C. (Robert C. (1963). Marquesan sexual behavior. [s.n.]. p.17-18 https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=ox06-013

"**Boys help in the manufacture of copra and in gardening tasks.** They also are expected to handle the more strenuous tasks, such as collecting coconut drippings for contraband insert_drive_file1824 cont. alcohol, or aiding in construction jobs. **They are taught fishing techniques, woodworking and hunting. Instruction in most cases is entirely informal, by example rather than precept.**"

6.4.3 Maori

Firth, R. (1959). Economics of the New Zealand Maori. R. E. Owen, Govt.Printer. p.189-190. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=oz04-004

"The games and pursuits of children were often in mimicry of the activities of their parents or, again, were of a competitive, sporting nature. These were encouraged by the elders as tending in the former case to make children familiar with the occupations of later life, and, in the latter, to develop those qualities which would be most useful to them in dealing with their somewhat stern natural and social environment. Provision was also made to promote the knowledge of useful crafts among the boys and girls. **Thus a certain stone named kohurau was used only for making adzes for children and young people, so that by handling them they might learn the use of proper tools. The adzes for workmen were never made from this material.**

As they grew up boys were initiated by their father into the technique of the various crafts and the magical regulations pertaining thereto, while girls were taught weaving and the kindred arts. Boys also accompanied their father on bird-snaring or rat-trapping expeditions, and were trained by him in economic lore. Opportunity was also taken on these occasions to instruct the youths in a knowledge of tribal boundaries, family lands, fishing rocks, birding trees, and other points of ownership.

Perhaps the most important branch of education was that of the Whare wananga or "House of

Learning". Here in the winter months a few of the young men of high rank, approved intelligence, and tested powers of memory assembled to receive instruction in tribal history, legends, and genealogies, in the most sacred mythological tales and religious rites, and also, perchance, in the formulae of black magic, by which men were sent down to destruction. Thus, under the strictist conditions of tapu, and hedged in by the most solemn ceremonies, were the traditions of the tribe handed on from one generation of experts to the next. Instruction of a less sacred character was given to larger audiences in such subjects as astronomy, agriculture, fishing, and the like, which would help to fit the young men for their future responsibilities. On account of each of these subjects being termed a whare (house), it has sometimes been thought that a separate house was built insert_drive_file190 for each course of instruction, but such was not the usual practice. They represented merely different curricula, and were given in the one building. The names of the courses and the procedure in connection with the House of Learning varied in different tribes. The importance of this institution in the transmission of culture is indicated by the ideal of the teaching. Says Best: "The object of the School of Learning was to preserve all desirable knowledge pertaining to the subjects already mentioned, and other traditional lore, and to hand it down the centuries free of any alteration, omission, interpolation, or deterioration" (op. cit., 7). Any departure from old teaching was strongly disapproved of, and a slip in the imparting of knowledge might involve the death of the expert, slain by the power of the outraged gods.

The industrial education of the Maori really comprised instruction in three branches; in economic lore, in technique, and in magic. Each was deemed indispensable to the training of the expert in any branch of work. At the same time there was inculcated in him a recognition of the value of labour."

p.212

"The children assisted their relatives in many technical occupations, and so helped to get their training. For instance, **in the sawing of greenstone youngsters were often enlisted to feed sandgrit and water to the cut, while the men sawed with their flint blades.** They also took a subsidiary part in communal work. They collected soft mud in kits and smeared it on the skids when a canoe was being hauled over a portage, and in preparation for a feast, as I was told by a Kawhia native, they were sent off to collect dry branches for firewood. Being largely free from the irksome restrictions of the tapu, which were not imposed upon them till riper years, their sphere of activity was much less sharply defined than that of the adults. At the same time they were quick to learn the ordinary observances of economic life. For the first-born children of chiefs more care was necessary, since they were always surrounded by an aura of tapu, even from birth. Such children generally had a commoner or a slave to attend them and to perform menial tasks. Such were the ponónga (servants, not necessarily slaves) mentioned in tales."

Buck, P. H. (1952). The coming of the Maori. Maori Purposes Fund Board; [distributed by] Whitcombe and Tombs. p. 361-362. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=oz04-003

"During the teen years, the boys and girls were able to assist their parents in manual tasks. The boys assisted their fathers in obtaining material, house building, fishing, fowling, food cultivation, and other masculine activities. **The girls were taught by their female relatives to plait mats and baskets, weave, and prepare food. The development of extra skill was a matter of individual aptitude**.

To become a master craftsman in the more skilled crafts such as wood carving and tattooing, the adolescent had to be taught by an expert. His apprenticeship was preceded by an initiation ceremony, in which the ritual brought him under the favour of the tutelary god of the particular craft. The student's understanding was thereby quickened, his ears became receptive to instruction, his memory retentive, and his hands skilful. The arrangements were usually made by the elders but sometimes the keen desire of a boy was recognized by a craftsman. Hori Pukehika of Whanganui told me how he became a master builder and carver. When the carved house of the Takarangi family, named Te Pakū, was being built at Putiki, Hori, as a boy, watched the carvers at work. The head carver was working on the tekoteko human figure to surmount the front gable end when the call came for the midday meal. Hori had been watching with longing eyes, and as the carver had left his chisel and mallet beside the work, he picked them up and commenced to carve the tattoo lines on the unfinished side of the face. He became so engrossed that he did not hear the craftsman return. He was surprised by an exclamation, and raising his head, he saw the head carver gazing with interest and surprise at what he had done. Hori dropped the tools in fear, but the old man looked at him kindly and asked, "Would you really like to learn to carve?" "Yes," replied the boy. "Very well," said the kindly expert, "meet me over there on the bank of the river just before sunset." At the place and time appointed, the old man told Hori to strip and, removing his own clothes, they waded out into insert_drive_file362 the water to waist depth. Just as the sun was setting, the master carver recited a ritual chant, sprinkled the boy with water, and Hori became an entered apprentice in the exclusive guild of builders and carvers. Hori said, “If you look at the tekoteko on Te Pakū, you will notice that on one side of the face, the lines are not quite regular.” Then with a deprecating smile, he added, “The crooked lines are mine.”

The highest craft among women was weaving and, here again, some were initiated so as to attain the greatest skill. Tira, the wife of Hori Pukehika, was one of the best weavers in the Whanganui district. After she learned the elements of the craft, the officiating priest told her to weave a rough sampler as an offering. This was laid by the priest on a tapu place termed a tuahu. He then lit a fire and warmed some puha leaves (Sonchus asper) over the embers. Then, with a ritual chant, he gave her the cooked leaves to eat. The ceremony fixed the knowledge she had already acquired and opened her mind and fingers to further skill. Her skill was unquestionable, for as Hori said with a proud smile, she had been “fed”.”

6.4.4 Tongans

Mariner, W., & Martin, J. (1818). An account of the natives of the Tonga islands, in the South Pacific ocean: with an original grammar and vocabulary of their language. John Murray. p.287-290. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=ou09-003

“The natives of Fiji, Hamoa, and the Sandwich islands, who were resident at Tonga, used to say that it was not a good practice of the people of the latter place to let their women lead such easy lives; the men, they said, had enough to do in matters of war, &c. and the women ought therefore to be made to work hard and till the ground: no, say the Tonga men, it is not gnale fafíne (consistent with the feminine character) to let them do hard work; women ought only to do what is feminine: who loves a masculine woman? besides, men are stronger, and therefore it is but proper that they should do the hard labour. It seems to be a peculiar trait in the character of the Tonga insert_drive_file288 people, when compared with that of the other natives of the South Seas, and with savage nations in general, that they do not consign the heaviest cares and burdens of life to the charge of the weaker sex; but, from the most generous motives, take upon themselves all those laborious or disagreeable tasks which they think inconsistent with the weakness and delicacy of the softer sex. Thus the women of Tonga, knowing how little their own sex in other islands are respected by the men, and how much better they themselves are treated by their countrymen, and feeling at the same time, from this and other causes, a patriotic sentiment, joined to their natural reserve, seldom associate with foreigners. Thus when the Port au Prince arrived at the Sandwich islands, the ship was crowded with women ready to barter their personal favours for any trinkets they could obtain; but how different at Lefooga! where only one woman came on board, and she was one of the lower order, who was in a manner obliged to come by order of a native, to insert_drive_file289 whom she belonged as a prisoner of war, and who had been requested by one of the officers of the ship to send a female on board. Captain Cook, also, strongly notices the reserve and modesty of the females of these islands; and the observations of this accurate narrator will serve to corroborate what we have been stating. We have already noticed the humane character of the Tonga females, and in addition we beg to observe, that their behaviour as daughters, wives, and mothers, is very far from being unworthy of imitation: children, consequently, are taken the utmost care of; they are never neglected either in respect of personal cleanliness or diet: as they grow older, the boys are made to exercise thamselves in athletic sports; **the girls are made occasionally to attend to the acquirement of suitable arts and manufactures, and of a number of little ornamental accomplishments which tend to render them agreeable companions, and proper objects of esteem: they are taught to plait various pretty and fanciful devices in flowers,** &c. which they present to their fathers, brothers, and superior chiefs, denoting respect for those who fill higher circles than themselves. There is still one observation to be made with respect to females, and which is not of small importance, since it tends to prove insert_drive_file290 that the women are by no means slaves to the men; it is, that the female chiefs are allowed to imitate the authority of the men, by having their cow-fafi'ne, as the male chiefs have their cow-tangata: their cow-fafi'ne consists of the wives and daughters of inferior chiefs and matabooles, and it may be easily conceived that such an association tends to support their rank and independence."

7 South America

7.1 Amazon and Orinoco

7.1.1 Ndyuka

Hurault, J., & Winchell, J. (1961). The Boni refugee Blacks of French Guiana. In Mémoires (Issue 63, p. HRAF MS: xi, 583 [Original: xii, 356]). IFAN. p.192. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=sr14-006

"Education of children. If the education of girls does not necessitate a difficult apprenticeship, it is not the same for boys; the sum of knowledge that /132/ a Refugee Black must possess to carry out effectively the techniques of his group is considerable. In particular, he must:

–Know more than 200 kinds of trees with their uses, the way to fell them, the way to work their wood;

–**Be capable of constructing boats of at least 10 kegs (1,000 kilograms of load). This technique alone requires several years of apprenticeship**;

–Acquire sufficient knowledge of carpenter work to build his house and that of his wife;

–Learn how to handle boats on the river and the techniques of transport boating."

7.1.2 Pume

Petrullo, V. (1939). The Yaruros of the Capanaparo River, Venezuela. In Bulletin (pp. 161-290 , 14 plates). U.S. Govt Print. Off. p.202. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=ss19-001

"Hunting and fishing are male occupations exclusively. **As soon as the young boy is able to toddle about he is made to play with bow and arrow and learns to make these indispensable tools. It is a common sight to see little boys who are too young to be taken along by the men on hunting expeditions playing at the game of hunting; and when a man is in camp busily preparing his hunting equipment his young son is by his side working industriously on miniature bows and arrows.**

The equipment of the hunter is simple. Bow, arrow, and canoe are indispensable. A Yaruro does not like to roam on land, but there is no need for him to do so since he can get his game in the water-courses or along their banks. So he sets off in the early morning, generally accompanied by his hunting companion, to look for crocodile (Crocodilus babu). He will hunt for other forms of life only reluctantly, having a special liking for crocodile meat."

Leeds, A. (1962). Ecological determinants of chieftainship among the Yaruro Indians of Venezuela. In Akten des 34. Internationalen Amerikanistenkongresses (pp. 597–608). Verlag Ferdinand Berger. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=ss19-003

p. 606 (contextual information)

"One more point may be made regarding the ecology as limiter of chieftainship among the Yaruro.

The tools, techniques, and resources require no very extensive, highly specialized or esoteric knowledge. In fact any man or woman, and any child as well, has access to such knowledge, and it is easily acquired by all members of the society who thus have, at least potentially, equal access to control over the means of life. There is no specialized knowledge, at least with respect to technology and habitat, which requires a specialized repository in the form of a chief or learned person. Yaruro knowledge, itself dependent upon the inventory of tools, techniques, and resources, inhibits any tendency towards the development of any sort of specialists in technical or managerial knowledge. As one might expect, there are no true specialists in Yaruro society. Here and there women make pots and certain women seem to have a special bent for making woven sacks but these are not properly specialities. Nor, from a technological or ecological point of view, is male or female shamanism in any way a speciality. They do not appear to be specialists even in esoteric knowledge. Knowledge of the general type described here might be called 'dispersive' or 'egalitarian' since it tends to become more or less uniformly distributed among the members of the society. A consequence of the existence of this type of knowledge, associated with the kind of technology described, is that there will be no specialised training of any specialists and, of course, no specialised personnel to do such training. This is the situation which obtains among the Yaruro both with respect to technical and managerial activities. Thus, in Yaruro knowledge, there is no source for the support of an institutionalized and strong chieftainship."

7.1.3 Shipibo

Eakin, L., Lauriault, E., & Boonstra, H. (1986). People of the Ucayali, the Shipibo and Conibo of Peru. In Publication (pp. ix, 62). International Museum of Cultures. p.51. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=se26-025

"At one time informal instruction formed an important part of a child's life. **Boys especially were given careful instruction by their father or grandfather in various practical skills. They learned how to fell a tree and shape a canoe, how to make bows and arrows, how to construct a house.** Today, when many of the children spend a large part of the day in school, and many men work away from home, this instruction is much less common. **Much learning, however, continues to be by informal observation and imitation. Girls learn how to string beads and make pottery by working alongside their mothers.** As they grow older, they are given more responsibility in cooking and working in the garden. Boys spend endless hours fishing, either from the shore or from a canoe, and **helping with men's chores. They begin to accompany the men on hunting trips at about age ten**.

Children's games are often imitations of typical adult activities. Girls cook on small fires or play with homemade dolls; boys hunt lizards with bow and arrow. Hide-and-seek is popular, as are a number of games and toys introduced from western culture, including stilts and tops.

In addition to traditional ways of educating children, the Shipibo have also had access to formal education for many years. Catholic missions have often had schools, conducted in Spanish, as did some Protestant missions; and patrones have occasionally hired teachers as well."

7.1.4 Warao

Wilbert, J. (1976). To become a maker of canoes: an essay in Warao enculturation. In enculturation in latin america: an anthology: Vol. v. 37 (pp. 303–358). UCLA Latin American Center Publications, University of California. p. 323, 350. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=ss18-021

p.323 "This work is carried out within the confines of the village and the children have been watching the craftsman for weeks. The boys are called frequently to the site to observe the process, although they are not permitted to touch the tools, not only to forestall the child's damaging the hull but also to avoid provoking the spirit of the tool. Only men from neburatu up may pick up an adze. **Thus, at least for the child, to learn how to handle the adze and how to finish the hull of a dugout is to learn through observation, never through practice. The adolescent will have to learn later under the guidance of his father. Again there is not much verbal instruction between father and son, but the father does correct the hand of his son and does teach him how to overcome the pain in his wrist from working with the adze.** Another piece of explicit instruction occurs with respect to using the outspread hands to measure the thickness of the hull. The father remeasures the area that his son completes and, if necessary, corrects him personally.

p. 350

"**From the age of three on the conditioning of boys toward canoe construction becomes more intensive**, quite different from that of the girls who will be required as adult women only to maneuver a canoe, which she learned to do as a child with the others. In the manufacturing process the woman plays at best an ancillary role. **The father requires his prepuberty son to witness the different phases of canoe construction over and over again.** But in addition to being exposed to the technical processes involved, the child also develops the realization that boat making requires esoteric skills on the part of the master craftsman. As technical skills are mastered the emphasis of the general conditioning shifts during adulthood to concentrate more on the esoteric skills. A man's aptitude for the career of craftsman which, according to the Indians, is a "natural" concomitant of being male is the result of such pervasive attitude conditioning. Casual though the general conditioning may appear to the outside observer, it is for the most part planned intentionally, a subject to which I return later on.

Technical skill-training predominates during postpuberty and early adulthood. The boy of fourteen swings his machete and axe with precision, participates progressively in the selection of an adequate tree, and is permitted to try his hand at cutting and excavating the trunk. The young adolescent also knows how to prepare the corduroy road along which the excavated hull will be dragged to the river. **Approximately five years of in-service training results in skills sufficient for the eighteen-year-old to fabricate his own first canoe from start to finish. His technical proficiency improves over the next six or seven years so that skill-training per se can be said to terminate by the time a man is twenty-five years of age.** Training in esoteric skills commences at this point for the properly conditioned, now technically competent, Warao. Under the guidance of a teacher he internalizes a complex curriculum of ritual and metaphysical knowledge. Among the skills he must acquire are chanting, verbalizations, and the ability to function in altered states of consciousness."

7.2 Eastern South America

7.2.1 Guarani

Schaden, E., & Lewinsóhn, L.-P. (1962). Fundamental aspects of Guaraní culture. In Corpo e Alma do Brasil (Issue 6, p. HRAF MS: 1-236 [original: 191 plates).). Difusao Européia do Livro. p.113-114. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=sm04-002

"The time of the resguardo represents for the adolescent a period of apprenticeship in manual skills, a sort of school of home economics. Although some say that the girls are given training only "in order to be distracted," others insist that she "does not stay idle, no," and has to occupy herself: "it is in order to learn." And, as soon as the days of the monthly period have elapsed, there is much to learn: to prepare food, to pick over cotton, to spin, to plait hammocks, to sew, to cut out clothing, to make akanguá (diadems), djeatsaá, mbaraká . But 94 naturally “she could not work at anything heavy.” At least among the Mbüá the teaching is administered by the grandmother, paternal or maternal.

With the abstraction of the specifically educational aspect of the resguardo of the menstruation, it is essentially analogous to what is demanded of the parents of the newborn baby: measures imposed in reaction to a state of extraordinary physical and supernatural diathesis. The similarity is also shown by the comparison of the myths concerning the two situations narrated by the Ñandéva.

Nowadays the Ñandéva men do not use tembetá (labial ornament), nor do they pierce the lower lip of the boys. But it is probble that they have known the practice in former times; otherwise it would not be understandable that in their mythology they represent Tupã with a luminous tembetá . Nowadays, however, they insert_drive_file114 pay little attention to the phenomenon of masculine adolescence. Only in the village of Jacareí have I had information that **the boy, when his voice changes**, is subjected to the resguardo in order not to be the victim of odjépotá and so that there will not be incarnated in him certain spirits, particularly of animals such as anta, jaguar, etc. The spirits of female animals would be incarnated in the boys, just like those of male animals in the girls. The resguardo of the boys is practically reduced to not eating the meat of animals considered dangerous spirits. **It is at this age that they learn the manufacture of adjó (carrying baskets) and sieves, the tasks in the clearings, the construction of traps, and other things.**”

p.96-97

“It is not long before one of the characteristic traits of the situation of the adults, at least in the villages of southern Mato Grosso, appears in the economic behavior of the children. It refers to the sexual division of labor within the family, quite transformed, incidentally, as a consequence of the acculturative effects of the contacts. The woman does not practice earning money, whereas for the man his capacity for work and production is a source of pecuniary means nowadays considered indispensable for the existence of the group. The children’s attitudes already conform to this distinction. **From eight to ten years old, more or less, the boy passes through a period of what might be called an insert_drive_file97 apprenticeship: he accompanies his father in hunting, in the collection of honey, and in other activities, also learning, under paternal orientation, the technique of plaiting and the manufacture of the most diverse artifacts**. Spontaneously –

and less through the initiative of his parents, contrary to what Virginia Drew Watson observed among the Kayová of the village of Taquapiri – the boy makes his own clearing and, not infrequently, sells the produce; with the money he buys some clothing that he needs or some gift for his mother – a dress to be made up, for example –; nothing for his father. At Francisco Horta it happens that Kayová boys ten years old do changa outside the village. Starting at twelve years of age the Guaraní boy in general begins to show his independence, working only part of the time in his father's clearing, until at about fifteen or sixteen he starts living with his father-in-law, on whose tillage he will have to work much more than the latter's sons. – In any case the affective bonds that bind the boy to his father are much less stable and lasting than those that tie him 82 to his mother. Lacking a father, there is little preoccupation about finding a "legal substitute"; the person more often indicated, however, is the paternal uncle."

7.2.2 Tapirapé

Wagley, C. (1977). Welcome of tears: the Tapirapé Indians of central Brazil. Oxford University Press. p.150. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=sp22-016

"**During the time that a boy lived in the takana, he was supposed to learn the male manual arts—how to weave baskets, how to make a bow and straight arrows, how to fabricate the spirit masks that the men wore in different ceremonies, and other handicrafts. However, I never witnessed any express attempt on the part of an older man to teach a young boy such pursuits.** On the other hand, the takana was the place where adult men generally worked, and a boy had ample chance to watch them at it. In addition, boys were supposed to learn songs of the Bird Societies and of the various masked dancers during this period. Again, I cannot remember that they were consciously taught such songs, but it was in the takana where older men sang, often not for ceremonial reasons, but just for their own pleasure. Older men found boys of this age rather amusing in their attempts to carry out adult activities. Wearing the penis band could be rather painful until the prepuce stretched. Adult men laughed when such boys tended to finger their sexual organs repeatedly, and especially when the irritation caused an erection."

7.3 Northwestern South America

7.3.1 Chachi

Altschuler, M. (1965). The Cayapa: a study in legal behavior. University Microfilms, Inc. p.15-16. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=sd06-004

"Manufactures. Woodworking: It is immediately apparent that canoes and their handling are extremely important to all the inhabitants of the area. Young boys often begin their lessons in canoemanship by playing on the drifting logs that come down stream when the river is in flood. They tumble and splash and learn insert_drive_file16 to maintain a precarious balance. **Children from about the ages of nine to thirteen may have small canoes /kakúle/ made for them, which may be seven to eight feet in length, and scarcely a foot in width. At these ages boys begin to accompany their fathers into the monte where the canoes are roughed out by axe and adze. They learn to select the proper trees as only those that are tightly cross-grained will not split easily.** Occasionally canoes are roughed out at some height above the creek or rivulet that feeds into the main channel and in the process of carefully snubbing them down the boys learn to rig lines. A large canoe, about thirty-five feet long, may require almost a dozen men to bring it into the water from the monte, whereas a small canoe can be brought in by two or three men. Despite the fact that by the time the boys have reached their late teens they have acquired a large measure of skill in handling canoes, their canoes are nevertheless not considered finely finished until they have had several more years of experience."

7.3.2 Goajiro

Watson-Franke, M.-B., & Watson, L. C. (1986). Conflicting images of women and female enculturation among Urban Guajiro. Journal of Latin American Lore, Vol. 12(2), 141–159. p.146-147. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=sc13-017

"Central to the inculcation of the ideal image of woman is the encierro, a seclusion period for the girl (majayüráá) beginning with her first menses. The encierro, we argue, is the central identity-forming mechanism for females in this culture. The image of the ideal woman is directly associated with successful seclusion. The mother or female caretaker isolates the girl immediately from the rest of the family as soon as she has been informed of her condition. **This isolation may last from one to five years under traditional circumstances. During the encierro she is**

expected to learn two things. For one, she should learn to achieve control in the sphere of production; this is done by instructing her in weaving and reminding her that she must now be responsible and considerate, as an adult is expected to be. For another, she should learn to achieve control in the sphere of reproduction, which is accomplished by instructing her in the preparation and administration of contraceptive medicines.

She is encouraged to excel, expected to achieve, and, if she has been properly socialized, she should be prepared to take on responsibility. As mother, sister, wife, and niece, the Guajiro woman takes control of economic resources, plays a crucial role in the socialization and future destiny of her children, and performs a vital function in keeping up harmony and balance in the lineage and the larger society.

The enclosure is a process which is designed to ensure the young woman's safe and successful passage from childhood to adulthood. Magical procedures play an important role in this: her old hair is cut, for example, so that the new hair of an adult woman will grow; she is given several baths a day to enhance her beauty and to cleanse her of childish thoughts; she is dressed in new clothes, made especially for enclosed girls (simple colors, short); and she lies in a new hammock and uses new utensils when eating. There is a basic understanding that the biological changesinsert_drive_file147 have to be accompanied by well-defined and well-executed cultural measures to assure her attainment of adulthood. **While she is enclosed, the girl receives instructions in spinning, weaving, sex education, and contraceptive control. At the end there is a big party to celebrate her coming out.**"

Watson, L. C. (1967). Guajiro social structure: a reexamination. Antropológica / Sociedad de Ciencias Naturales La Salle, Vol. 20, 3–36. p.8. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=sc13-011

"As a function of the crucial importance of avuncular authority in the Guajiro matrilineage, **older boys who are approaching adolescence very often move to the rancheria of their maternal uncle in order to receive appropriate instruction from him with respect to economic skills** (GUTIERREZ DE PINEDA 1950: 165) and cultural values, and to fortify their claim to inherit his property in land and livestock. This creates a structural alignment in which the "nuclear family" at any given moment is composed of both the man's own children who have not gone to live with other relatives and any of his maternal nephews who have come to help him manage his herds and to prepare themselves, in the educative sense, for the assumption of adult responsibilities. **The**

mother-wife, furthermore, may have older maternal nieces living with her who are undergoing the puberty confinement ceremony, or who are simply receiving advanced instruction in weaving and social skills from her (personal communication to author)."

7.3.3 Kogi

Reichel-Dolmatoff, G. (1976). Training for the priesthood among the Kogi of Colombia. In enculturation in latin america: an anthology (pp. 265–288). UCLA Latin American Center Publications, University of California. p.281. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=sc07-009

"During the education of a novice there is no skill training to speak of. Kogi material culture, it has been said already, is limited to an inventory of a few largely undifferentiated, coarse utilitarian objects, and **the basic skills of weaving or pottery making—both male activities—are soon mastered by any child**. There is hardly any specialization in the manufacture of implements and a máma is not expected to have any manual or artistic abilities. He is not a master-craftsman; as a matter of fact, he should avoid working with his hands because of the ever-present danger of pollution."

7.4 Southern South America

7.4.1 Tehuelche

Adem, T. A. (2009). Culture summary: Tehuelche. HRAF. p. 3. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=sh05-000

"Tehuelche children were indulged and seldom corrected by their parents (Cooper, 1946:30). Women were primarily responsible for taking care of children. Other relatives and band members also recognized each child by participating in a variety of ceremonies marking the passage of the child through different developmental stages. Children learned about religious beliefs and social norms by participating in these ceremonies from earliest childhood. Children also learned other practical skills including hunting, gathering, weaving and tool making, from parents and band members."

Musters, G. C. (1873). At home with the Patagonians. J. Murray. p.186. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=sh05-002

“The boys soon learn the use of the weapons, and both boys and girls ride almost before they can walk: the sons rarely accompany the father to the chase before ten or twelve years of age, and do not join in fights till they are about sixteen years old, but there is no fixed period and no ceremonial to mark their admission to the state of manhood. The attainment of puberty by the girls is celebrated as described in page 80. **From the age of nine or ten they are accustomed to help in household duties and manufactures**, and about sixteen are eligible for the married life, though they often remain for several years spinsters. Marriages are always those of inclination, and if the damsel does not like the suitor for her hand, her parents never force her to comply with their wishes, although the match may be an advantageous one.”

7.4.2 Yahgan

Gusinde, M., & Schütze, F. (1937). The Yahgan: the life and thought of the water nomads of Cape Horn. In Die Feuerland-Indianer [The Fuegian Indians]: Vol. Vol. II (p. HRAF: xv, 1471 [incomplete] [original: 365-1185, 1278-1499]). Anthropos-Bibliothek. p.563. https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=sh06-001

“186. Despite some shortcomings in the following description, Bridges affirms that children are given definite instruction by parents and adults: “**Parents universally take no pains in the education of their children, and give them no instruction in the arts of native life, save it may be a little instruction in swimming and basket-making by mothers to their daughters; yet I believe that even for this they are generally as much indebted to others as to their mothers.** The children learn to speak, to use the spear, sling and arrow, to make these and other implements and vessels as best they can” /cited in English/ (MM:IX, 214;1875).”